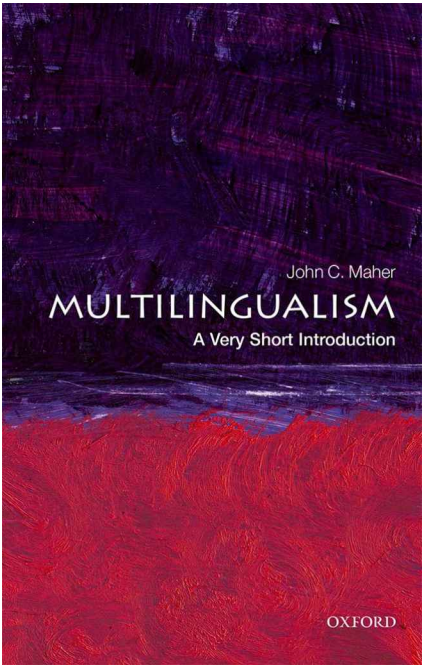

John C. Maher
MULTILINGUALISM
A Very Short Introduction
OXFORD

Multilingualism: A Very Short Introduction

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MULTILINGUALISM

A Very Short Introduction

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In memory of my father and mother
Go raibh míle maith agaibh

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Chapter 1
A multilingual world

Diversity and society

A language is an assembly of social styles, the argot of social group and workplace, historical continuity and change, grammars and vocabularies, and regional accents. Languages are signs of belonging. They are storehouses of history and literary tradition. The languages of the world mix and overlap to join in the elegant total unity that is human language. Each language is a patchwork of cultural variation and influences. The Russian philosopher of language Mikhail Bakhtin (1895–1975) noted that our own utterances are made from others' words so that speech contains both our-own-ness and otherness. This multiplicity shows that language complexity is a human quality.

Multilingualism is languages crossing the boundaries of nations, continents, and cultures, like Spanish in Europe and the Americas. One-third of urban Europe under the age of thirty-five has a migrant background and this means an inflow of languages. In the Netherlands, in addition to Dutch there are twelve major community languages. One territory may host several different languages inside its borders. Luxembourg has three official languages (French, German, and Luxembourgish) while the Philippines has over 120 languages, including two official (Filipino and English) and nineteen 'recognized' regional languages.

Approximately, 6,500–7,000 languages exist in 200 sovereign states. Half the world is bilingual. In the European Union 56 per cent of the people are functionally bilingual. In the United States and Canada 20 per cent speak a language at home other than English. Over 40 per cent of the world's population is bilingual in English and another language.

Multilingualism is a fact of life across all continents. South Africa has eleven official languages—the most for a single country. The European Union has twenty-three 'official' and three working languages involving 253 two-language combinations for 4,000 translators and interpreters. The USA has more Spanish-language speakers than Spain. Spanish ranks second in the world by the number of native speakers. Multilingualism also involves sign language. The world's 300 deaf sign languages have different grammars and vocabulary. Signers of ISL (Irish Sign Language), KSL (Korean Sign Language), and ASL (American Sign Language) are mutually unintelligible. Multilingualism also touches writing systems. For example, Maltese is the only Semitic language written in the Latin script and is a variety of Arabic with half of its vocabulary from Italian and Sicilian.

Historically, nations and nationalism have worked to enforce the idea of one nation = one language. An ancient, Near Eastern myth tells of a king—based on the Babylonian tyrant Nimrod—who constructed a tower to celebrate his expanding empire: a towering symbol of hubris, confirmed by the rule of one language, 'one speech'. His rival—God—fought back, destroying the tower and returning the world to an original blueprint: diversity. Multilingualism in town, classroom, or house, challenges our ideas about community. As the German sociologist Jürgen Habermas (1929–) reminds us, the liberal state cannot exist as a collection of individuals nor as separated parallel communities. Habermas urges a new post-secular model based upon interpersonal communication and dialogue. If one language cannot contain the whole of human wisdom

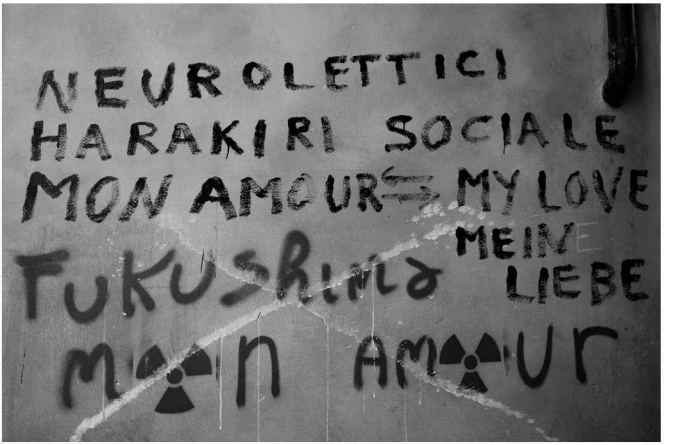
then knowledge, peaceful dialogue, and emancipation reside in language diversity.

Multilingualism (Latin *multus* + *lingua* 'many' and 'language') is a social situation involving groups or communities who communicate, with varying proficiency, in more than one language, in addition to a national or standard language. This is called 'societal multilingualism'. Similarly, 'individual multilingualism' or 'bilingualism' means a person's ability to use two languages (bi + lingual, Latin *bilinguis* 'two-tongued'), separately or mixed, with varying degrees of competence. Associated with multilingualism is the concept 'multiculturalism', which is the existence and acceptance of multiple cultural traditions and practices within a community—the idea of a diverse, inclusive society. The study of multilingualism is part of the sociology of language. This comprises the investigation of phenomena like the condition of minority languages, language death and revitalization, language and nationalism, multilingual cities and communities, language education, and language planning. The scope of multilingualism involves past and present and all the language modes: writing, speaking, and signing.

Language in daily life

Multilingualism is everywhere around us just because, in the words of the British linguist M. A. K. Halliday, 'language is the creator and creature of human society'. Through language people are able to exchange meanings in street signs and graffiti (Figure 1), in casual conversation in school playgrounds, and in prayers, political speeches, and pop songs. People do this in daily life, alternating their speech style, languages, and dialects according to different social contexts and conversations.

Mahatma Gandhi spoke Gujarati, Hindi, and English. Nelson Mandela spoke Xhosa, Afrikaans, and English, and John Quincy Adams (the sixth US president) went to school in the Netherlands,



1. Multilingual graffiti on a wall in Genoa, Italy.

spoke French and Dutch, and learned German as ambassador to Prussia. On the football pitch, Zinedine Zidane used French, English, and Italian in addition to his home language Algerian Arabic, while manager Pep Guardiola gives instructions in Catalan, Spanish, English, German, and Italian.

Some authors work in several languages. Irish playwright Samuel Beckett (1906–1989) wrote plays like *Waiting for Godot* in French and English. The Polish novelist Joseph Conrad (1857–1924) was a poor speaker of English, but nevertheless decided to write his novels in the language. Israeli singer Ofra Haza (1957–2000) sang in Hebrew, Arabic, and English, and opera singers like Italy's Luciano Pavarotti (1935–2007) trained in the working languages of opera: Italian, German, French, and English. The terminology is blurry but we say that a multilingual person possesses various language 'repertoires'—they are able to do some things in a language but not others. You chat informally with a friend in a local dialect or language but in another situation, corresponding by email at work, you switch to more formal, standard language or

even a different language altogether. A multilingual person is not someone who has mastered several languages; rather it is someone who uses language for different functions in different contexts (see the example of Beatriz, Box 1).

Another way of describing multilingualism is to connect with the need for language policies and language 'planning'. What languages will be the medium of school education and public services? What should be the language of parliament, congress, or

Box 1 A conversation with Beatriz, twenty years old, New York, 2016

I grew up in Ann Arbor, Michigan. The people next door were from Côte d'Ivoire. They spoke French and some other stuff. You hear them on the porch. Our family moved to Chicago. Tons of languages on our street. We're originally from Brazil. My mom and dad spoke Portuguese at home so that's what we speak at home. Dad read books to me in Portuguese. My aunt in Fortaleza sent us DVDs. My little sister isn't as good as me at speaking. Julia says it's like 'cause she's dumb but I think my parents just got kinda busy or tired. I played soccer in high school. Some other girls on the team were Italian.... I mean like they spoke Italian. So I picked up some Italian. For talking *calcio*. Julia took Spanish in school. Said it's dead easy. 'It's just like talking Portuguese with a different accent.' That winds my dad up. But I think there's something in it. I'm going to college in New York. I get my sandwiches from a cool bakery on the corner. They speak Yiddish. That's what they say it is. My roommate's Korean-American from New Jersey. She talks with her mom. They make her speak Korean at home. I like how it sounds. Don't you think the /l/ sounds cool? I watch K-Pop and I'm doing a double major at college: economics and Korean. I get to spend a semester in Seoul. Cool.

courts of law? Though language diversity is an everyday social fact everywhere, most countries recognize only a small number of 'national' languages and 'official' languages. Japan has community languages like Japanese Deaf Sign (JSL), Korean, Chinese, and Brazilian Portuguese, and several indigenous languages in the Ryukyu Islands, but Japanese is designated as the only official language. Some countries, like Singapore, have established language policies that attempt to reflect a diverse social structure where a person might speak Tamil at home, Chinese at work, and English on the phone.

Multilingualism in the world order

The importance of multilingualism is enshrined in commemorative events like the 'World Day for Cultural Diversity for Dialogue and Development' (21 May). This day was proclaimed by the United Nations to emphasize the importance of intercultural dialogue, diversity, and inclusion. Likewise, at the initiative of the Council of Europe, 26 September was designated 'European Language Day' to encourage language learning and to highlight linguistic diversity as a tool for achieving intercultural understanding. There is also 'International Mother Language Day' (21 February), which urges the use of mother tongues as a means to develop local heritage. The day aims to inspire solidarity among people and foster learning in children's own languages under the slogan, 'If you don't understand how can you learn?'

The United Nations sponsors 'Language Days' to raise awareness of multilingualism and cultural diversity by highlighting the UN's six official languages. These Language Days emphasize the contribution of languages to world culture, not merely as symbols of nation states:

Arabic, 18 December, the date when Arabic was approved as a UN language.

Chinese, 20 April, a seasonal celebration of the mythical Cangjie who invented Chinese characters.

English, 23 April, the anniversary of William Shakespeare's birth.

French, 20 March, the anniversary of *L'Organisation internationale de la Francophonie* (OIF), French-speaking countries who share 'the humanistic values of the French language'.

Russian, 6 June, the birthday of the Russian poet Alexander Pushkin.

Spanish, 12 October, Columbus Day, a commemoration of Columbus' discovery of the Americas, in 1492.

Some memorials, like Columbus Day, are controversial. In Argentina it is called the *Día del Respeto a la Diversidad Cultural* ('Day of Respect for Cultural Diversity'), in Latin America the *Día de la Raza* ('Day of the Race'), in Spain the *Día de la Hispanidad* and *Fiesta Nacional*. The memorial attracts opposition because of an implied approval of Columbus myths, genocide, and enslavement of indigenous peoples.

How many languages?

How many languages are there in the world? An exact figure is not known, but a reasonable estimation is about 6,500–7,000 languages worldwide. The number comprises sixty languages with over ten million speakers, spoken and written languages, deaf sign languages, 228 language families, and ninety-six language isolates (having no known genetic connection with other languages). There are creoles, pidgins, mixed languages, and still unclassified languages. The largest single language by population is Mandarin (845 million speakers), followed by Spanish (329 million speakers) and English (328 million speakers). An authoritative annual publication is *Ethnologue: Languages of the World*. In this catalogue there are statistics

for '7,457 languages' of which 360 are listed as extinct. The *Ethnologue*'s criterion for what constitutes a language is 'mutual intelligibility'. A comprehensive listing of the world's languages can be found at the *Ethnologue*, online. Other efforts to catalogue languages of the world include *Glottolog*, a bibliographic database of the world's lesser-known languages.

The same only different

How do we understand differentness and sameness when identifying languages? Many dialects can be viewed as different languages. In China, Cantonese, Wu, and Fukkinese are regarded as one language or 'topolects', speech of a geographic region; they share the same script and are located within the nation. Conversely, many languages are actually dialects, like the group of Romance languages that includes Italian, Spanish, and Portuguese.

At what point does a dialect stop being a dialect and become a 'language'? The definition of a language is only partly linguistic. Politics and power count. The Yiddish scholar, Max Weinreich (1894–1969), popularized the adage 'A language is a dialect with an army and navy' to highlight the influence of politics and power in society's perception of the status of a language or dialect. Cuban Spanish and Chilean Spanish are dialects of the same language—Spanish. We do not call them different languages. However, suppose you walk into a café in Copenhagen, Denmark, and order in Swedish. You will be understood. Your conversation is mutually intelligible, but you are considered to be speaking different languages. Varieties of language can be mutually intelligible but for political reasons designated 'languages' rather than 'dialects'. The 'click' languages of the Nguni group in South Africa, Xhosa, and Zulu, are actually dialects. In India, the Bengali and Assamese languages are part of a dialect continuum (along with Bishnupriya). They share the same script, and

speakers can mostly understand each other. On grounds of intelligibility, Bavarian (Austro-Bavarian) in southern Germany and parts of Austria should probably be designated as a 'language' different from the German of Germany and Austria; some classification systems do just that. It is complicated. Should we classify Sicilian as a language different from Italian? Where local or national identities collide, naming becomes the symbolic marker of group difference.

The distribution of languages

The languages of the world are a mosaic. Many regions, like India, have massive linguistic diversity: 1,620 so-called mother tongues classified into 200 languages. For calculation purposes, we sometimes call massive conglomerations like Chinese or Arabic 'macro languages' comprising many languages. Arabic has eighteen identifiably different languages with over one million speakers, and Chinese has thirteen separate languages with at least one million speakers.

Some minority languages in India are bigger than the speaker populations of some European countries. There are more languages in Africa and Asia than in Europe. Indonesia has over 700 languages, Papua New Guinea over 800 languages. About 4,000 languages are used (spoken) by less than 2 per cent of the world's population while approximately 40 per cent of the world's population employ one of the most common eight languages as a first language: Mandarin, Hindi, Spanish, English, Bengali, Portuguese, Arabic, and Russian.

Box 2 shows the distribution of languages and their varieties throughout the world, with numerical estimations for languages that have a recognized status, *de jure* (e.g. India) or *de facto* (e.g. United States), as official languages—whether or not everyone in that country is fluent in the language.

Box 2 Official language populations: the top twenty

1. English is the *de jure* or *de facto* official language of Antigua and Barbuda, Australia, Bahamas, Bangladesh, Barbados, Belize, Botswana, Brunei, Cameroon, Canada, Cook Islands, Dominica, Eritrea, Ethiopia, Federated States of Micronesia, Fiji, Gambia, Ghana, Guyana, India, Ireland, Israel, Jamaica, Kenya, Kiribati, Lesotho, Liberia, Malawi, Malaysia, Malta, Marshall Islands, Namibia, Nauru, New Zealand, Nigeria, Niue, Palau, Papua New Guinea, Philippines, Rwanda, Saint Kitts and Nevis, Saint Lucia, Saint Vincent and the Grenadines, Samoa, Seychelles, Sierra Leone, Singapore, Solomon Islands, South Africa, South Sudan, Sri Lanka, Sudan, Swaziland, Tanzania, Tonga, Trinidad and Tobago, Tuvalu, Uganda, United Kingdom, United States of America, Vanuatu, Zambia, Zimbabwe. English is also the *de jure* or *de facto* official language of the following non-sovereign territories/entities: Akrotiri, American Samoa, Anguilla, Bermuda, British Indian Ocean Territory, British Virgin Islands, Cayman Islands, Curaçao, Falkland Islands, Gibraltar, Guam, Hong Kong, Isle of Man, Jersey, Norfolk Island, Northern Mariana Islands, Pitcairn Islands, Puerto Rico, Sint Maarten, Turks and Caicos Islands, US Virgin Islands.

   Speakers: 1,400 million. Varieties: Types of English include varieties in Britain and Ireland (e.g. Scottish English, Yorkshire dialect, Irish English), North America (African American English, Canadian English, Caribbean English, Midwestern English), Africa (South African English, Nigerian English), South Atlantic (St Helena English), Asia (Indian English, Hong Kong English, Philippine English), Australia and New Zealand (Australian English), Pacific as well as pidgins and creoles.

2. Chinese (the official language of China, Taiwan, and Singapore) includes the standard forms Mandarin (Putonghua) and Cantonese (a prestige dialect of the South China branch of Yue Chinese). Both are official languages of Hong Kong and Macao.

Speakers: 1,000 million. Varieties: Mandarin, Jin, Wu (includes Shanghainese), Huizhou Gan Xiang or Hsiang Min or Miin (includes Hokkien, Teochew, Fuzhou), Hakka, Yue (includes Cantonese and Taishanese), Ping.

3. Hindi is a *de jure* official language of India and also spoken in Nepal, Fiji, and among the diaspora of North America, Mauritius, United Kingdom, and South Africa.

   Speakers: 700 million. Varieties: Bundeli in Madhya Pradesh. Awadhi in Uttar Pradesh, Uttarvarsh, Bihar, Delhi, Nepal, and also Fiji, Bagheli in central India, Kannauji in Uttar Pradesh, and Chhattisgarhi in Chhattisgarh.

4. Spanish is the *de jure* or *de facto* official language of Mexico, Colombia, Spain, Argentina, Peru, Venezuela, Chile, Ecuador, Guatemala, Cuba, Bolivia, Dominican Republic, Honduras, Paraguay, El Salvador, Nicaragua, Costa Rica, Puerto Rico, Panama, Uruguay, and Equatorial Guinea. There are substantial Spanish-speaking communities in Andorra, Belize, Gibraltar, Trinidad and Tobago, and the United States.

   Speakers: 442 million. Varieties: The main varieties of Spanish are Hispanic American Spanish (Mexico, the United States, Caribbean, Andean-Pacific, Rioplatense, Chilean), the Old World peninsular varieties (northern, central, southern) within Spain, and Canarian.

5. Portuguese: Brazil, Mozambique, Angola, Portugal, Guinea-Bissau, East Timor, Equatorial Guinea, Cape Verde, and São Tomé and Príncipe. Portuguese is also co-official in several countries such as East Timor and Macao.

   Speakers: 271 million. Varieties: Brazilian and European are the two main varieties of Portuguese.

6. Russian: 270 million.

(*continued*)

Box 2 Continued

7. French: 220 million.
8. Arabic: 170 million.
9. Malay: 160 million.
10. Bengali: 150 million.
11. Japanese: 127 million.
12. German: 98 million.
13. Urdu: 85 million.
14. Korean: 77 million.
15. Vietnamese: 75 million.
16. Turkish: 71 million.
17. Italian: 68 million.
18. Persian: 55 million.
19. Tagalog: 50 million.
20. Thai: 50 million.

Pluricentricism vs monocentrism

Languages have various 'centres' located in different nations: German in Austria as well as Germany, French in France and Quebec. There is mutual intelligibility among standards which have their own national norms. A standard may have official status and it may be a vehicle of local identity. The most widespread dialect of Kurdish is Kurmanji in south-eastern Turkey. It employs the Latin script. By contrast, Central Kurdish or Sorani, found mostly in Iraq and Kurdistan Province, is one of the two official languages of Iran and is written mostly in the Persian alphabet. Having two

geographic 'centres' with different literary norms makes Kurdish pluricentric. Serbo-Croat has several standard variants: Bosnian, Croatian, Montenegrin, and Serbian. Some pluricentric languages lack official recognition, like the Russian of Latvia, Lithuania, and Estonia.

Differences between varieties, in the writing system, vocabulary, and pronunciation, may increase over time, sometimes due to political division. There is increasing linguistic divergence in the Korean peninsula, even in language naming. The modern exonym (the non-native name) for the 'Korean' language derives from Goryeo or Koryŏ, a 10th-century dynasty, but the current endonym (native name) in South Korea is *hanguk-eo* (Korean language), *uri-mal* (our speech), or *hanguk-mal* (Korean speech), whereas North Koreans call the language *Chosŏn-mal* or *Chosŏn-ŏ*. Indonesian and Malaysian were once variants of Malay, i.e. they were the same language, but no longer. This is a process of decentralization. Indonesian grew separately, internationalized, and then became the lingua franca of a large population. Malay also has its own local dialects.

Attitudes towards pluricentricism are complicated, 'Will other speakers understand us?' 'Isn't this language break-up?' There are concerns about judgements of acceptability. The myths of 'pure English' and 'pure French' die hard, as do misperceptions like 'France's Pascal was the greatest literary master of the language therefore the French of France is the best'. Stereotype leads to language prejudice. Cultural elites, in countries with a vigorous local variety, are prone to uncertainty and may devalue their own speech norms. They may look to the external dominant variety and regard their own variety as low status ('linguistic cringe'). They may lack language loyalty and converge towards a dominant, normative variety when national varieties communicate. Thus, a monocentrist ideology might be triggered by the presence of one dominant language—a belief that a 'normal' speaker is monolingual and speaks only one standard variety in social situations. In an oppressive

ideology, to speak the standard variety is to be a member of an elite. Also, the language norm is likely to be centred around the economic and demographic core of the nation—the capital.

Icelandic and Japanese are monocentric languages. Italian is monocentric despite the existence of Swiss Italian and dialects, such as Neapolitan, that are mostly unintelligible to standard Italian speakers. During the late Middle Ages, the Dutch-speaking populations of the Southern Netherlands (Belgium and Luxembourg) were weakened under Spanish, Austrian, and then French rule, gravitating to the standard language of the Netherlands. The Dutch Language Union (*Verdrag inzake de Nederlandse Taalunie*) of the Netherlands and Flemish Belgium bolsters Dutch language education worldwide. The confederation includes the Netherlands, Flanders, and the Dutch-speaking Caribbean islands. Exclusivist ideas are not necessarily derived from monocentrism. In the Netherlands, the former, loaded description of standard Dutch, *Algemeen Beschaafd Nederlands* or ABN ('Common Civilized Dutch') was replaced by the more liberal 'Standard Dutch' *Algemeen Nederlands* (AN). Given the differences between Netherlandic Dutch and Flemish it is fair to say that Dutch is pluricentric with different centres of standardization.

Many languages are radically pluricentric (see Box 3), like English which is diversified into 'Englishes' like Singapore English, American English, Zambian English, Scottish English, etc. Of the native speaker population of English, speakers of American English comprise 65 per cent, British English 18 per cent, and Australian and Canadian 7 per cent respectively. The linguist Braj Kachru (1931–2016) suggested a dynamic three-circle model for 'world English' showing its diffusion around the world: an 'inner circle' of 350–80 million comprising communities of native speakers spread by the first diaspora (Australia, New Zealand, North America, etc.), an 'outer circle' of 150–300 million speakers spread during the second diaspora of imperial expansion and colonialism and

Box 3 Seven pluricentric languages

Spanish Basque—French Basque

Chinese Chinese—Singapore Chinese—Taiwanese Chinese—Malaysian Chinese

Israeli Hebrew (Ivrit)—Sephardic Hebrew—Ashkenazi Hebrew—Yemenite Hebrew

French Occitan—Spanish Occitan—Italian Occitan—Monacan Occitan

Peruvian Quechua—Bolivian Quechua—Ecuadorian Quechua

Afghanistan Persian (Dari)—Iranian Persian (Farsi) Tajikistan—Persian (Tajik)

Kenyan Swahili—Tanzanian Swahili—Ugandan Swahili

comprising widespread usage of English as a second language in government, education, etc. (Nigeria, Bangladesh, the Philippines), and finally an 'expanding circle' of 100 million to one billion speakers of English as a foreign language (China, Egypt, the Netherlands, Poland, Indonesia, Russia) where English is used for specific purposes such as business, science, and technology and in higher education.

When a variety develops its own independent cultural status, like Quebec French, it builds up to become what was termed by the German linguist Heinz Kloss (1904–1987) an *ausbau* language (*ausbausprache*)—an autonomous standardized variety. Multiple dialects of the same language can become standardized, like the continental Scandinavian languages, which form a dialect continuum of neighbouring varieties that differ only slightly, but are autonomous. Over time, a break usually opens up between two varieties—an ongoing separation.

Japanese and Korean are structurally similar members of the same Altaic language type with likely genetic connections, but are nevertheless mutually unintelligible, separate, and 'distant': *abstand* languages or languages by distance. By contrast, some languages seemed to distance themselves from each other, possibly by political design, like Hindi borrowing from Sanskrit, and Urdu from Arabic and Persian. Following the dismemberment of Yugoslavia, several incipient language communities sought *ausbau*—to put distance and daylight between them. This happened with (a) (mostly Catholic) Croatian borrowing from Latin and West European languages, (b) (mostly Orthodox) Serbian borrowing from Slavic languages, and (c) Bosnian incorporating words from Turkish and Arabic.

Heteroglossia: voices of other languages

The Greek philosopher Diogenes of Sinope (*c.*404) was credited with inventing the word 'cosmopolitan' to transcend Athenian 'local origins and group memberships' in order to grasp a new vision of our place in the world. He mocked the traditional view of language as nomenclature and language acquisition as the mere ability to name things accurately. Rather, a language is like a woven cloth of threads from different fields, strengths, and colours. Diogenes' universalist philosophy continued with the Stoics and with the modern liberalism of Immanuel Kant and Adam Smith. His notion of language as essentially dense and complex was exploited by the Russian linguist Roman Jakobson (1896–1982), who noted that 'all conceivable sounds', including exotic sounds and the 'twitter of birds' that we hear in a baby's prelinguistic babbling, reflect the phonetic variety found in the world's languages.

How to define 'language' is an issue affecting how we count languages. The problem is epistemological, touching on the rationality and truth of the way we define multilingualism. This is because the term 'multilingual' (multilingualism) is anaphoric.

To find its meaning we are forced to refer to something else, i.e. 'monolingual' (monolingualism). Both multilingual and monolingual seem incomplete, mutually dependent. However, consider again the view that language is not a completely separate entity but consists of multiple, interconnected layers.

For example, line up some film dialects and we can see why there is a demand for subtitling in countries that, in fact, share the same language: the West Riding of Yorkshire dialect in Ken Loach's *Kes* (1969), Lowland Scots English in Danny Boyle's *Trainspotting* (1996), and the Spanish-inflected Brooklyn English of Karyn Kusama's *Girlfight* (2000). One and the same language is layered, internally complex, and geographically diverse.

We commonly think of a language as a stable and independent thing, each language a walled garden. Another view is that language conceived as a single entity is a convenient fiction. Each language and each speaker is immersed in other languages. Bakhtin wrote in his influential *Speech Genres and Other Late Essays* (1986) that we live in a world of others' words. Each language contains the voices of others. It is a condition of 'heteroglossia' (Greek *hetero-* 'different', *glōssa* 'tongue, language'). One language comprises the history of thousands of different influences. Bakhtin's notion of the mixed nature of speech gives us another slant on multilingualism:

> The words of others carry their own expression, their own evaluative tone, which we assimilate, rework, and re-accentuate. Any concrete utterance is a link in the chain of speech communication.... The very boundaries of the utterance are determined by a change of speech subject. Utterances are not indifferent to one another, and not self-sufficient; they are aware of and mutually reflect one another.

The straight dichotomy multilingual vs monolingual is problematic. Language itself resists flat definition, especially if it is a dense compound of accretions with varieties and borrowings from other

languages and peoples. Even if I grow up 'monolingual' my speech is influenced by a thousand 'voices' known and unknown, stretching back hundreds of years. Multilingual awareness is to know that language comprises a mosaic of speech from family and friends, songs and rituals, the speech of my town, and many past generations. Language is a bulk of history with countless traces that I will never know, entire regions of my mother tongue that will remain forever-unknown territory. Who is to say that this language is mine alone, my property? Language belongs to nobody and everybody. It is personal-interpersonal, located outside the speaker in others, in history.

Chapter 2
The causes of multilingualism

How languages spread

'How do languages spread and why do so many languages exist?' The questions are connected. Well-known agents of spread are war and colonization but also migration and settlement, religion, the needs of trade and business, and the media. Four conditions serve to spread languages: introduction, sustainment, establishment, and benefit. Firstly, a language is introduced to another place by an event such as migration, natural disaster, or conquest. Secondly, the language is sustained (e.g. by government or military authority) so the language can be maintained. Thirdly, language shifts from being an additional language to establishing itself, becoming the population's mother tongue. Finally, language is viewed as beneficial, a social advantage. It might serve as a lingua franca in a territory where many languages exist. Learning the language confers material opportunity, power, and resources—commerce, access to technology, employment, and study.

Origin myths

Ancient accounts of language diversity are found in Panini's famous grammar of Sanskrit (4th century BC), in religious texts such as the Hebrew Bible, and in Greek and Latin myths.

Discord among people or struggle with divine beings are recurrent themes in language origin myths. According to ancient Greek myth, in the beginning the world spoke one language, a gift from the twin god and goddess of ingenuity, Philarios and Philarion, who created a 'unispeak' under the rule of Zeus, king of the gods. His son, the cunning Hermes, undermined this unity by bringing confusion and discord, different languages and dialects. The new reality caused a distraught Zeus to give up his throne to Phoroneus, the first king of men.

According to the Mayan tradition of the indigenous K'iche' people of Guatemala and their language K'iche' or Quiché, language diversity is enshrined in one of a corpus of creation narratives. Tulan, earth, was a place of cold, hunger, and unhappiness inhabited by the 'first four men' whose speech was so confounded they were unable to communicate. Eventually, they set out for a new abode across mountains and seas, which they found in a place of sunshine—the first K'iche' city.

In a Hindu legend, the 'confusion of tongues' resulted from the pride of a tree of knowledge that grew so high in the centre of the earth that it touched heaven and declared: 'I shall hold my head in heaven, and spread my branches over all the earth, and gather all men together under my shadow... and prevent them from separating'. Hearing this an angry Brahma, the god of creation, severed its branches and cast them to the earth, which caused the people of the world to disperse, with different languages and culture.

Social identification

Language expands into new places, new territories. More correctly, speakers acquire languages: their language behaviour changes. There are two aspects here, form and function. Firstly, what variety or form of language is spreading? If English spreads in Europe what form of English is it: British or American usage in pronunciation and spelling? Secondly, what is the purpose of this

Box 4 A tale of three cities

- I work in a computer company in Helsinki.
- But you said you're from Tallinn. You speak Finnish?
- Yes, I'm from Estonia. If you speak Estonian you understand Finnish.
- You said you know Russian?
- I went to all Estonian schools but I spoke Russian at home. A quarter of Estonians are Russian-speaking.
- Do you feel the same about both languages?
- It changes. Maybe I feel more Russian than Estonian. I'm reading a lot of information science stuff in Russian now. I want to get transferred to Moscow.

A conversation with Andres, thirty years old, Helsinki, 2016

spread? In what communication networks: trade, music and the arts, politics, religion?

Multilingualism is the result of big and small influences. Social, religious, and economic forces abet the transmission of languages from one speech community to another. Languages spread through communities of people whose interests converge. Social identification is a powerful principle, affecting what speakers you want to identify with and how closely. Sociolinguists study the strength of the social bonds that hold people together. Strong linkages that are long-lasting might derive from home and birthplace, from language or ethnicity. Weak linkages may disappear as people change their country or work circumstances (see Box 4).

Annexation

Territorial expansion or annexation by nations and empires is power politics leading to multilingual and multinational populations. The literary and official language during the

Ottoman Empire was progressively Turkish, the Middle East's lingua franca and vehicle of administration from the 14th century to 1922. Annexation can lead to different kinds of social policy: from proactive bilingualism (a rare thing), to linguistic laissez-faire or pressure on minority languages.

The United Kingdom is an example of a country that has adopted passive-aggressive policies over several hundreds of years, leading to Celtic regions/kingdoms that remained linguistically distinct but were gradually absorbed into a hegemonic entity centred on London. The layering of bilingual toponyms (place names) reveal these historical effects (see Figure 2).

On a different scale, the vast geographical spread of modern China—from ports and islands like Hong Kong and Macao to mountainous Tibet and desert Mongolia—is the result of hundreds of years of dynastic invasions and alliances. Besides the Han majority, the Hui, and the Manchu, who speak varieties of



2. Bilingual (Irish/English) road signs in Galway, Ireland.

Chinese, there are fifty-three official ethnic minorities comprising five groups of eighty languages.

Annexation is unstable. The fracture of the multilingual Roman Empire or the Soviet Empire demonstrates this. In the 19th century, Tokyo annexed the Ryukyu Islands, exiled the Ryukyuan king to Tokyo and demoted the six Ryukyuan languages to *hogen* 'dialects'. Ryukyuan languages were suppressed and the eradication plan for schools involved the use of a *hogen fuda* (dialect tag); pupils caught using the local language had a tag hung round their necks. In South Africa, Afrikaner resistance to British rule, culminating in the South African War (1899–1902), was expressed in terms of a celebration of Afrikaans, a variety of Dutch. In 18th-century Bohemia, romantic nationalism was reborn with Magyar (Hungarian), while in the 19th century Czech lands were placed under the Germanization politics of the Hapsburg emperors. Czech gradually became the language of the new state led by its key figure, the philologist Josef Dobrovský (1753–1829).

Migration and diaspora

Fifty thousand years ago, people moved from Asia across 1,000 miles of tundra, crossing Beringia—the Baring Strait Bridge—to spread throughout mainland Canada. The north-west Pacific is still home to many aboriginal language families such as Athapaskan, Tsimshian, Haida, Salishan, Wakashan, Tlingit, and Kutenai. A small number of people are fluent in these languages—less than 25 per cent of the native population. The dispersion of people with a common origin who scatter and settle outside or away from their ancestral homelands is termed the 'diaspora'. Diasporas are a powerful feature of multilingual society.

Typically, migration operates in waves. In 1497, seafaring English-speaking migrants claimed Newfoundland, sailing from Dorset, Devon, and Somerset, the coastal south-west of England.

Most people in Canada speak English, but migration has bolstered an increasingly bilingual national population. In British Columbia, 26 per cent of people speak a language other than English or French as their first language; the most commonly spoken home languages are Cantonese, Mandarin, Punjabi, German, Tagalog, French, Korean, Spanish, and Farsi. English itself is an immigrant language. Continuing waves of migration to Canada enriched its distinctive linguistic character. In the late 18th century, refugees from the Thirteen Colonies—the 'Loyalists'—brought with them its distinctive r-less New England speech. The pronunciation of the diphthong in *house* and *about*—different from other North Americans—is likely due to the impact of Scottish speech. Scottish migrants established Nova Scotia (Latin for 'New Scotland') in 1622 and contributed the Scots vowel in these examples (a phenomenon known as 'Canadian raising'). There are still about 6,000 speakers of Gaelic (Scottish and Irish) across Canada.

In the 19th century, more migrants arrived in North America from England, and especially Ireland as a result of the Potato Famine (1845–47). Settling around the Great Lakes of Ontario and Eire, the sounds of English spread along with toponyms like London, York, Chatham, and Hull. Mixed spelling rules also reflect Canada's immigrant roots. While Ontario spells *honour* and *theatre*, other provinces prefer *honor* and *theater*. The next waves of immigration occurred in the 1890s when migrants arrived from across the European continent, then in the 20th century post-war period (1945–60) from Asia.

Immigration is geographically patterned. Chinese (1,000,000) and Punjabi (430,000) are the most common immigrant languages in Canada. Two-thirds of those who speak an immigrant language at home, in Canada, reside in six metropolitan areas. Portuguese-speaking Canadians (211,000), as well as speakers of Urdu (194,000), and Polish speakers (192,000), mostly concentrate in Toronto, while Spanish-speaking

communities, mostly from Latin America, cluster in eastern Canada. Vancouver is home to speakers of the fastest-growing immigrant language in Canada, Tagalog (327,000).

Large numbers of people migrate, with languages, to work and improve their standards of living. Urdu is a community language in West Yorkshire, Polish is the second largest language community in Iceland, and Japan is host to Brazilian Portuguese-speaking neighbourhoods. According to the United Nations there are currently 200 million international migrants around the world. This is not new. A Latin-speaking African division manned Hadrian's Wall in the 3rd century, Oliver Cromwell allowed the resettlement of Ladino/Yiddish-speaking Jews in 1656, Arabic-speaking Muslim sailor communities settled in Liverpool and Cardiff in the 18th century, and massive post-war immigration from the imperial colonies conveyed hundreds of languages to the shores of Britain from the Indian subcontinent, the Caribbean, and Africa.

Chinese diasporas date back to the Ming dynasty when explorer and diplomat Zheng sent Cantonese and Hokkien traders to the South China Sea. In 1409, he carried a trilingual stele, carved in Nanjing in Chinese, Tamil, and Persian, on a voyage to Sri Lanka. Overseas Chinese in Australia, Canada, Europe, and North America replenish old-established Chinatowns in Los Angeles, Toronto, Paris, and Yokohama. These transplanted communities establish networks that serve to reinforce language bonds, like the *Association des Résidents en France d'origine indochinoise* in Paris.

By 1910, 13.5 million immigrants were living in the United States. Migration continues to create the norms of multilingualism. Throughout Europe, the language landscape changed under the impact of immigration. In Britain, it was multiethnic inner cities that absorbed previous waves of immigration, but new language milieux are emerging in rural towns and villages where farm and

hotel work is being done by Eastern Europeans. Policemen in Norfolk are teaching themselves Lithuanian so they can chat to locals. Polish is heard in the grocery shops along the coastline of East Yorkshire and it is the largest minority language in the Republic of Ireland. Cultural and linguistic flows are the natural course of society.

Religion

Religion is involved in language diversity. People often flee a country on account of religious conflict. Missionaries use local languages to propagate their faith. Also, language is crucial for liturgical practices. Until the Vatican Council shifted its language policy in 1963, Latin was the primary liturgical language of the Roman Catholic Church, an obligatory language of clerical training and widespread in the Catholic school curriculum.

In North America, Navajo religious practices—involving the traditional Navajo religion and the Native American church—encourage the use of Navajo in sermons and Bible study. In the South American Andes, evangelical Christianity has fostered Quechua literacy through translations of the Bible, songbooks, and sermons: a Quechua expression of Christianity. Religion informs literacy practices, as in Japan and Korea where Buddhist scriptures, originally composed in Pali and Sanskrit, are written in classical Chinese.

Aramaic translations of the Jewish Torah first appeared during the Babylonian captivity (7th century), and the New Testament started to be translated into vernacular languages (Old French, Old English, Czech, Catalan) from the Latin Vulgate in the 13th century. Missionaries quickly convert the liturgy into vernaculars. In Cameroon, the prayers and sermon of a Baptist service may be in Fulfulde—a lingua franca of the northern provinces—while the scripture reading is in French. The introduction of sacred scriptures became a road to literacy in many developing countries.

This meant that 'missionary languages' acquired prestige compared to indigenous languages.

Religion offers a means of preserving distinctive identities by language differentiation. Roman Catholicism, linked to French-language religious practices, was a potent marker of French-speaking identity in Quebec. Therefore, language provides a boundary marker from other communities or adjacent colonizing countries; as seen in the alliance of Welsh and Nonconformism from the 18th century. The Welsh voice expressed itself robustly in the chapel movement, against the (Church of England) gentry who owned much of the land of Wales. While the Victorian bishops were monolingual in English, the rank-and-file clergy were of Welsh origin and dedicated Welsh speakers.

In North America, distinctive religious settlements such as the Amish and Mennonite sprang up following 19th-century European emigration. Language was linked both to religious affiliation and a sense of peoplehood or ethnicity characterized by its own lifestyle—buggies, bonnets, and lanterns. The Amish world spans primarily the Midwest states such as Ohio, Indiana, Wisconsin, and Iowa. Along with Old Order Mennonites, the Amish speak a variety of West Central German, with an estimated 300,000 speakers in the United States and Canada. Pennsylvania Dutch or Pennsylvania German that the Amish call 'Deitsch' is learned first and English acquired later. Old German in Gothic letters is the language of religious documents, scriptural verses, and church regulations, while English is the language of trade and wider, worldly society.

Colonialism

A post-imperial state is typically a microclimate of several languages that serves the prevalent social and political order. In the Cameroons, with 200 different native languages, German was a language of administration during German colonial rule.

Following World War II, the country was divided between French and British administrations, 80 per cent and 20 per cent respectively, with different language policies. French language policy, through various directives (1920, 1924), prohibited Cameroonian languages in schools, a policy with lasting consequences on the use of vernacular languages. French became the official language at independence in 1960. The great imperial languages did not necessarily displace vernacular languages. French was adopted as a mother tongue in mostly elite families in Indochina for example, and as a second/additional language among the Francophone populations of Asia and Africa.

Portuguese was the language of a global Portuguese empire that lasted six centuries involving fifty-three, currently sovereign, states. When Lisbon relinquished Macao and China assumed sovereignty in 1999, Chinese (Cantonese) and Portuguese were designated official languages. Macanese Patuá is a creole, based on Portuguese vocabulary and integrating Malay, Cantonese, English, and Spanish, and is still spoken by some residents, while Portuguese occurs in public signage. Portugal established colonial control over Timor in the 16th century and East Timor became independent in 2002. However, during East Timor's struggle against Indonesian occupation (1975–99) the vernacular Tatum was the lingua franca for informal written communication, songs, and anthems. At that time, Portuguese, banned during the occupation, became a symbol of political resistance and civil society: transitioning from the symbol of a colonial order to that of freedom. East Timor is supported by Brazil, Portugal, and the Latin Union and the country is a member of the Community of Portuguese Language Countries (the Lusophone Commonwealth).

Economy and modernization

Not all languages are equal. Some are more powerful than others. Many firms in the global market, like IBM, employ English as their in-house corporate language as well as for multinational

contact. Language skills, especially in English, are seen as crucial in hiring, training, assessment, and promotion. However, there is push back, with concern that some languages, English in particular, are too dominant, and that such policies demoralize workers and impact negatively on the quality of personnel.

The fast-growing shift to the use of English is evident in science and technology. English as a medium of instruction (EMI) in universities and schools is increasingly regarded as a passport to advancement in global business and academic communities. English is the 'new Latin'. Such policies have motivated some countries like Denmark, Finland, Norway, and Sweden to protect the Nordic languages in education and research (Nordic Council of Ministers, 2007). Sweden reiterates that it is a multilingual nation (Language Act, Swedish government, 2009) and insists on 'parallel language use' for the dual use of Swedish and English in tertiary education.

In the global village, language is deterritorialized, travelling along the Internet grids of the globalized media. Modernization theory holds that cultural homogeneity and the decline of lesser-known languages follows modernization. Subject to economic depression and emigration many agrarian societies changed gear to an industrial and post-industrial mode. Rural communities are changed radically by transport and electrification which provide the spread of media and membership of the global village.

In the rural electrification scheme in Ireland, by the mid-1960s 80 per cent of rural households were connected. However, the linguistic impact worked both ways. In Ireland not only did it cause English to replace Irish in some social domains, it also stimulated the spread of Irish language and culture. Would some languages now be dead were it not for their adaptation and realignment in radio, television, the new media, and new information technology? Urban, eastern, and middle-class Ireland have actively supported the Irish language and the establishment

of Irish-language media like Raidió na Gaeltachta and Telefis na Gaeilge (TG4).

Transnational communities of knowledge

In the summer of 1778, La Scala, one of the world's most famous opera houses, opened in Milan from whence Italy and the Italian language have continued to dominate the culture of this musical art form. In the 2016–17 season, the Metropolitan Opera in New York produced twelve operas sung in Italian, four in German, four in French, two in Czech, and one in Russian.

Cultural power tends to reframe the politics of language and poses new questions. Since the mid-2000s, *Hallyu*, the global wave of South Korean popular culture, has contributed to a Korean language boom. A surge of interest in K-pop and Korean film and TV drama programmes led to an interest among the younger generation towards learning Korean. Korea's official cultural institution, the King Sejong Institute, increased the number of Korean language schools from seventeen in 2008 to 200 in 2017. In the United States, as American culture becomes more Asian, the boost to Korean language learning helped Korean-Americans reconnect with older family members. As Korean-language education policy was previously oriented towards overseas Korean language teaching it developed within this framework of national identity and nostalgia. A shift in ideology is required to reframe some languages from an ethno-national to a world language identity.

The ecological rubric of multilingualism has transformed the cultural landscape.

Language is associated with specific activities and occupations. It creates global, transcultural communities of bilingual individuals, whether it is Italian in music school or English as the lingua franca of the world's scientists. Chinese was a powerful cultural vehicle in the fields of philosophy, government, social structure,

literature, and food in the modern period. Vietnam was a Chinese protectorate and the region was occupied by China for 1,000 years. Classical Chinese characters together with *Chur Nom*—a script based on modified Chinese characters to represent spoken Vietnamese—remained the dominant writing system until the 20th century. Likewise, throughout Asia, until the 19th century, Chinese was the lingua franca of medicine (theories of the body, herbal medicine, acupuncture, and massage), the result of a long cultural association.

Specific languages become influential in particular fields. The historic role of German in Europe has been crucial in numerous scholarly domains. Generations of scholars have studied German for science, philosophy and theology, architecture, and music. Knowledge of German is important for music theory and practice. Many nations employ German musical terminology and methods of instruction. The German musical tradition is still based on names like Bach, Beethoven, and Brahms, as students from across the world flock to its music academies and festivals, like the Wagner Festival in Bayreuth.

Demographically, German is the most widely spoken native language in the European Union, with 90 million speakers and spoken as a foreign language by about 55 million Europeans. It is an official language in Austria, Belgium, Switzerland, Luxembourg, Liechtenstein, and Italy's South Tyrol. It is a recognized minority language in Denmark, France, Poland, the Czech Republic, Hungary, Romania, and Slovakia. In the 19th century, Berlin was the leading centre of medical research and German was a language of medical communication and publication—a language of study in the medical school curricula, globally. The empowering of German in world medicine and the flowering of German in physicians' jargon and scientific publication represented what the sociolinguist Florian Coulmas has termed a 'language regime', that is practices, often unchallenged, which have evolved over time without much deliberate planning.

Chapter 3
Multilingualism, myth, and controversies

Folk linguistics

Society has conventions for the use of language, like 'speak properly' and 'don't interrupt when somebody's talking'. There are recurrent ideas and superstitions surrounding language, like 'French is logical, Italian is beautiful, Japanese is vague' or 'Children don't speak properly any more'. There is also misunderstanding about language diversity in society. Linguists challenge these assumptions, 'Well, it's not quite like that'. Analysing people's beliefs about language, or 'folk linguistics', is important for education and for our common understanding about how language works. One of the most enduring myths is the Tower of Babel which, according to common interpretations, describes multilingualism as a punishment.

Myth 1: 'The curse of Babel'

The tale of the Tower of Babel, in the Book of Genesis 11:1–9, pictures the origin of the world's language diversity. The citizens of Babylon build a high tower to touch heaven, 'in order to make a name for ourselves'. An angry deity, instead of destroying the tower, divides Babylon (i.e. the world) into hundreds of different cultures and languages. Work stops because the builders can no longer communicate with each other (see Box 5).

Box 5 The Tower of Babel: the hubris of power and unified language

1. And the whole earth was of one language, and of one speech.
2. And it came to pass, as they journeyed from the east, that they found a plain in the land of Shinar; and they dwelt there.
3. And they said one to another, Go to, let us make brick, and burn them thoroughly. And they had brick for stone, and slime had they for morter.
4. And they said, Go to, let us build us a city and a tower, whose top may reach unto heaven; and let us make us a name, lest we be scattered abroad upon the face of the whole earth.
5. And the Lord came down to see the city and the tower, which the children of men builded.
6. And the Lord said, Behold, the people is one, and they have all one language; and this they begin to do: and now nothing will be restrained from them, which they have imagined to do.
7. Go to, let us go down, and there confound their language, that they may not understand one another's speech.
8. So the Lord scattered them abroad from thence upon the face of all the earth: and they left off to build the city.
9. Therefore is the name of it called Babel; because the Lord did there confound the language of all the earth: and from thence did the Lord scatter them abroad upon the face of all the earth.

Genesis 11:1–9, Authorized King James Version

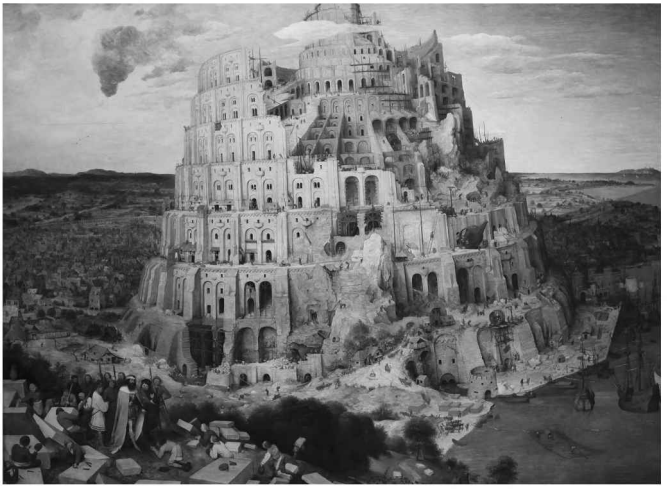
The Babel story, as told in the Hebrew Bible, was based around the building of the great Sumerian ziggurat of Amar-Sin in the city of Eridu. 'Babel' was the place name (English 'Babylon') for the metropolitan capital of the Babylonian and Assyrian empires in the 2nd millennium BC (a transliteration of the Akkadian *Bābili*

or *Babilim).* By mistaken etymology, the meaning was taken from the Hebrew verb *balal* ('to confuse', i.e. confusion of languages) from the verb *bilbél*, 'to confuse'. The related word in Hebrew, 'balal', means 'confusion'.

The classic interpretation of the story is that Babel is a warning. The existence of many languages in the world (multilingualism) is divine punishment: for the sin of pride, another version of the Garden of Eden myth. Einar Haugen, the Norwegian-American sociolinguist, decried the myth's negativism and its scorn for diversity, as 'the curse of Babel'. The literary critic, George Steiner, interpreted the myth differently. It demonstrated the absolute need for cultural 'privacy'. The story symbolized the human desire for secrecy, territory, and cultural isolation that would create thousands of separate languages. The world's languages serve as exclusive codes to inhibit communication with the Other, with strangers, enemies. and competitors.

Babel was essentially a struggle over political truth, a critique of cultural and linguistic homogeneity and the hubris of empire. The goal of Nimrod, ruler of the empire, was territorial unity (the city) and language unity—one imperial language—but the vastness of the Tower signalled imperial anxiety. Moreover, Nimrod's nationalist goal contravened the diverse vision promoted by the Hebrew God of creation (Genesis 9:7): 'And you, be ye fruitful, and multiply; bring forth abundantly in the earth, and multiply therein.' The drama's *dénouement* is that God forces humankind to go 'intercultural', to try to live in a diverse and challenging world of different peoples, languages, and cultures.

Babel's massive structure was a typical colonial referent: unification with a 'united' one-language policy. Babylon was the seat of empire, a powerful port, capital of the vast Babylonian empire, and the largest metropolitan city of the ancient world. The Tower of Babel (see Figure 3) can indeed be interpreted as a warning, but not that diversity is a primordial transgression. Rather, we can see



3. *The Tower of Babel* by Pieter Brueghel the Elder, 1563.

the demise of Babel as the implosion of a national enterprise and an aggressive ideology. Babel was a not-good place, a dystopia, and an imaginary community, characterized by linguistic and cultural oppression right at the centre of empire.

Myth 2: 'If we all speak one language, the world will be peaceful'

Violence is unsentimental about language. Khmer-speaking Cambodians under the Khmer Rouge regime killed approximately two million other Khmer-speaking Cambodians in the 1970s. Governments are adept at murdering fellow speakers of their language. Violence employs language loyalties as means to ends. There is routine discord among those who speak the same language because they are political opponents. In the American Civil War of the 19th century both sides spoke English. Likewise, political and ideological war has continued for half a century in the heavily militarized Korean peninsula. The Republic of South

Korea and the People's Republic of Korea share the same language. By contrast, peaceful language policies have been implemented in very multilingual regions like South Africa and Ethiopia, and in Bolivia and other Andean countries in Latin America.

Certainly, language can be the occasion of bloody conflict. For example, in 1972 in Karachi, Pakistan, Urdu-speaking crowds rioted in the Sind Province protesting a bill making Sindhi the region's only official language. Over three years (1992–5), a war raged between Serbs and Croats who share two related and mutually intelligible varieties of a common language. Around the same time occurred the bloody civil wars of Rwanda between Hutu and Tutsi who shared the same French and Bantu languages.

Non-violent but divisive conflict arose in 1968 in Belgium when French speakers proposed the extension of their language frontier to the city of Leuven, resulting in riots by the Flemish community. The bilingual Catholic University of Leuven (Louvain) was thus divided into two language-based sections. The turmoil caused the fall of the Belgian government and divided political parties along Dutch/French language lines.

The combustible mixture of proximity, religious conflict, and ethnocentric visions of national destinies is more potent than language loyalty. Peaceful multilingual nations like Finland (Finnish, Swedish, Sami) or Costa Rica (Spanish, Mekatelyu, Bribri, Patois) challenge the notion of a *pax linguistica*, i.e. if we can only 'speak the same language' peace and mutual understanding will prevail. In 2014, Ukraine's new government attempted to veto a law that granted the Russian language official status, with Ukrainian, in Russian-speaking regions. The law was not passed but led to turmoil. Attempts to challenge the existence of minority and indigenous languages foster social conflict and sometimes war, as in post-war India.

Society's commitment to human rights, including language rights, fosters peace. Can the idea of language equality in multilingualism become a bridge of reconciliation between nations? The war in the Balkans in the 1990s resulted in the expulsion of thousands of Albanians from their homeland. The flood of refugees from Kosovo to Macedonia led to the establishment of nursery schools where children from ethnic Albanian and Macedonian backgrounds could play and learn each other's languages. Such a task was difficult where Macedonian was the only official language, the language of power and the sole medium of education. This was an effort to replace bombs with community-building based upon language respect. Former Secretary-General of the United Nations Ban Ki-moon asserted that multilingualism is part of the 'democratization of international relations' and that 'multilingualism is the corollary of multilateralism'. It shapes the conditions for hospitable relations between countries and regions, contributing to the goal of international harmony.

Myth 3: 'Multilingualism isn't natural'

Race is not a scientific reality but rather, together with racism, an enduring cultural one. Similarly, the notion of a 'monolingual state' is a cultural, normative myth that does not go away. Two-thirds of the world's peoples communicate in more than one language on a regular basis. Roughly 130 countries out of 195, from A to Z, are officially bilingual, from Afghanistan with its two languages (Dari and Pashto) to Zimbabwe's sixteen languages: Chewa, Chibarwe, English, Kalanga, Koisan, Nambya, Ndau, Ndebele, Shangani, Shona, sign language, Sotho, Tonga, Tswana, Venda, and Xhosa.

Children everywhere normally learn their regional, minority, or tribal language. Western Europe has Catalans, Basque, and Galicians in Spain and the Valoise, Piedmontese, and Germans in Italy. Individuals switch back and forth between languages. Can we assume that aliens will have their own languages?

As earthlings explored the world in Star Trek, Star Wars, and Avatar, alien languages seem to have appeared on earth. Nations, the Internet, and probably outer space are multilingual. Prophetically, Google provides access to its products in the fictional extraterrestrial language 'Klingon': *tlhIngan Hol Dajatlh'a*? (Do you speak Klingon?).

Myth 4: 'English is the global standard. Why bother with anything else?'

Yes, 75 per cent of the world's mail is in English, 80 per cent of electronically stored information is in English, and the Internet is English-dominant. English is the global lingua franca. However, the counsel of an influential 5th-century philosopher, writing in Latin, holds true for most forms of social life, 'audi alteram partem' ('listen to the other side'). Knowledge, insisted the philosopher Augustine of Hippo (354–430), who lived in Berber- and Punic-speaking North Africa (Algeria), derives from being with others in their language and cultural world.

Why bother with any other language than English? Firstly, because our ability to understand—in various languages—is part of the exercise of our democratic rights. A quarter of the world's population communicates through English, either as a first or second language. It makes sense to join the global conversation of the remaining 5.4 billion people. Secondly, there are intellectual and aesthetic benefits from knowing the languages of other cultures. It enriches our personal life, and it gives adults and children pathways to the cultures of the world.

Thirdly, knowing other languages, becoming bilingual, is linked to improved cognitive skills like mental flexibility, problem solving, divergent thinking, better listening, and communicative sensitivity. Knowing other languages sharpens the brain's executive function: people are more flexibly attentive to information in the environment. It helps the aging brain.

Fourthly, because the economic value of minority languages will improve as high-speed and accurate automatic translation improves. Reliance on one lingua franca alone is unsustainable. Running parallel to 'globalization' is 'localization' (note the portmanteau word 'glocalization'). It is a co-presence of the particular and universal, where local cultural tendencies interact with universalizing tendencies. This has happened in the European Union, a fully integrated economic bloc emphasizing the unique contributory role of each region. Integration has enhanced the status of the defining characteristics of local/regional languages in the EU and increased interest in minority languages.

Fifthly, because in a globalized world with increasing mobility, knowing other languages provides more opportunities in the job market. Sixthly, because knowing other languages can increase local awareness and empathy. Learning languages enables us to see the world as others might see it. It may give us empathy with other ways of being.

Finally, because languages are part of our shared historic community and we should know about them. We grow up surrounded by diasporic languages and identities in our communities that perhaps we are not aware of: Welsh-speaking communities in Argentina, Pennsylvania, and Ohio; the Korean diaspora in Russia and Canada; the French- and Arabic-speaking Lebanese diaspora in Brazil. Their histories and languages enrich our communities.

Myth 5: 'Languages cost too much—multilingualism is an economic burden'

Multilingualism costs. It requires resources. But language is human capital and society must allocate resources to enhancing this capital. Communities' good health, skills, and knowledge involve language. Marginalizing languages starts a vicious circle. When a language is evaluated as socially inferior, the cost of

learning it becomes higher because inferiority becomes a barrier to investment. It also becomes harder. Motivation drops. Undoubtedly, the benefit of possessing a world language is seignorage, a premium. However, the dominance of English in the global economy must not obscure the fact that new technologies actually increase the market impact of other smaller languages, as seen in French-speaking Africa, Asia, and Europe.

There are many examples of committed multilingual nations that are financially stable and successful. Consider the case of one small city-state. During the Middle Ages, Temasek (Javanese, 'sea-town') was a fishing village on an island in the Indian Ocean in South East Asia. In the 14th century, the name changed to 'Singapura' (Sanskrit/Malay, 'lion city'). Following British colonization (1819–1942) this trading centre attracted settlers from China and southern India. Now, 21st-century Singaporeans in this powerhouse city-state are mostly bilingual and many are trilingual. Multilingualism is viewed, frankly, as an economic asset.

Singapore has four official languages: English, Mandarin, Malay, and Tamil. English, the native tongue of 30 per cent of Singaporeans, is the common language of government, business, and education. Migration, trade, and now tourism are factors that impact massively on social institutions and multilingual policies.

The relation between earnings and language knowledge is complex. However, large-scale economic studies of earnings in Canada show a robust, systematic increase in returns among Anglophone and Francophone bilinguals compared to unilinguals. Multilingualism requires effort and resources. Together with legal backing, the state must equip the administrative and education systems with the means to bilingualism (e.g. teachers and materials). The media must be able to function in more than one language. Knowledge of languages is a skill. Job opportunity, occupational choice, promotion, and work mobility are some of the known

advantages of bilingualism. Languages are a human resource even though some labour markets do not seem to value them. In every capital of the world a bilingual nurse is more useful to a downtown hospital than a monolingual one.

There is a wealth gap among countries with official multilingualism, like Singapore and India, as well as between two countries that are officially monolingual (South Korea and North Korea). The accusation that taxpayers cannot provide government services in other languages can be met by pointing out that migrants are also taxpayers. Migrants have rights, the right to communicate with government regardless of race, gender, or national origin (e.g. the Civil Rights Act, USA). There is the complaint that to translate public documents into community languages is 'an impossible burden' on local budgets. However, a survey of municipal documents in multicultural Hawaii found that of 400,000 documents distributed to the public only 265 were translated into languages other than English.

The knowledge of languages enhances job opportunities, economic, trade, and diplomatic advantages. In the UK, it is reported that half of the geographical areas of the world identified as important to the country's future economic growth use languages that are not taught in UK schools. Take the following advertisement in France. A seed company in Marseilles which is expanding its business wants to take on three new staff: a multilingual export manager to visit farms in twenty-five countries of the world, a linguist-translator for product labels and instruction manuals, and a webmaster who can build a website in Arabic, French, German, and Italian. Language learning enhances life chances.

Myth 6: 'Multilingualism means multiculturalism—a failed project'

Multiculturalism is a complex and challenging concept. It means more than the banal toleration of group-differentiated rights.

Multiculturalism calls for society to revise its dominant patterns of communication and to revalue identities, including language identities. The rise of the idea of multiculturalism links postcolonial, communitarian, and liberal egalitarian impulses.

Multiculturalism has been criticized as socially divisive: a celebration of cultural and ethnic particularism, a fetish of difference, segregating communities even more effectively than race. The critique holds that a 'new' racism has emerged in a new guise: the postmodern politics of difference. In this view, multilingualism goes hand in hand with multiculturalism to obstruct social cohesion and national unity. However, analysing human security discourse, the political philosopher Giorgio Shani reverses the argument, claiming that despite the homogenizing impulses of globalization,

> human dignity remains embedded in the 'thick' values of cultural and religious communities... Thus, a major source of insecurity comes from the failure of states... to recognize increasing cultural diversity of their populations which has resulted from globalization and the colonial legacy.

In the educational domain, the critique of multiculturalism is that support for local languages in the community, and mother tongue support in schools, are the Trojan horse for separatism. Does multilingualism interfere with the very social bond that the standard language brings? Set against this argument is the fact that all societies in the world are already multilingual. The use of various languages is a social norm, and societies are routinely filled with different indigenous and migrant cultures. From ancient times to the modern period, the world has experienced nomadic movement, invasions, transnational flows, and the mixing of populations and culture involving ideas, science, technology, philosophy, religion, food, language, and the arts. As the political theorist Bhikhu Parekh noted, a culturally homogeneous society is a fiction. Citizens do not behave

identically or all speak in the same way and follow an identical set of beliefs.

Multiculturalism emerged as a post-war response to the genocidal politics of the 20th century. The world was propelled into chaos by the ideologies of colonialism, imperialism, nationalism, fascism, Nazism, communism, and religious fundamentalism. There was a call to return to the roots of tolerance found in European liberal thought embodied in declarations such as 'Respect for the Jews' (Pope Clement, 1348), the Polish scholar Paulus Vladimiri's principle of conciliation and respect for native non-Christian peoples (1414), the Dutch Renaissance humanist Erasmus' emphasis on temperance in language and belief, echoed by Thomas More in *Utopia* (1516), theories of scepticism (Michel de Montaigne, 1533–1592), and theories of liberalism (John Locke, Baruch Spinoza, Voltaire, Gotthold Lessing, J. S. Mill). There was an emerging social and ethical consensus that cultural compromise is unstoppable and ethically desirable.

Multiculturalism also challenged the notion of the bounded state. Increasingly there were calls to seek the meaning of social identity outside the framework of our own national community. As German sociologist Ulrich Beck complained, the social sciences have suffered from 'methodological nationalism'. Not longer can we describe societies and polities with the metaphor of 'containers' bounded by well-defined territories.

Societies view multiculturalism in different ways. They may be hostile to cultural diversity and not understand it, or disapprove of it and leave it alone. Society may tolerate multiculturalism but barricade itself against it, realizing that it is not trained to cope with diversity, as a frustrated German chancellor, Angela Merkel, declared in a 2010 speech: 'Dieser Ansatz ist gescheitert, absolut gescheitert!' (Multiculturalism has failed, utterly failed!). Conversely, society may seek to understand and engage with multiculturalism, valuing diversity and making it part of its self-description.

This differs from vigorous attempts to assimilate communities into a mainstream culture while respecting pluralism, as when the French Prime Minster Nicolas Sarkozy stated in 2011: 'We must all respect differences, but we do not want... a society where communities coexist side by side. If you come to France, you accept to melt into a single community, which is the national community'. Such critique must be tempered by the fact that, everywhere, cultural adaptation happens quickly. Immigrants learn quicker now than they ever have. The so-called 'three-generation rule' applies: foreign-born immigrants with children race to the dominant language fast. *Veni, vidi, dixi.* I came, I saw, I spoke.

Social groups establish their own boundaries. They formulate the cultural features that they want, the ones they believe are relevant and important. Language, food, religious affiliation, family mores and attitudes, any of these can be adopted as cultural diacritica. However, multiculturalism is simply the normative response to the fact of cultural diversity. An exploration of the meaning of multiculturalism is found in one of its earliest definitions, 'The Canadian Multiculturalism Act' (1988) under French Canadian Premier Pierre Trudeau: 'Multiculturalism asks "How do we acquire our sense of social/national belonging"? Multiculturalism asks us to debate the current and future composition of society. What kind of society do we envisage?'

How and why is multiculturalism important to multilingualism? Firstly, because language matters. It is the medium of communication and the education of new citizens—immigrants, newcomers—matters. Secondly, language is enabling. A multilingual sense raises awareness of the political and civil human rights of all members of society, and grants access to the mechanisms of justice. Thirdly, because through harnessing the various languages of the community we can establish a richer social consensus. It is curious that citizens in some countries take to second-language learning more seriously than in other places. Language policy

scholar, Joseph Lo Bianco, suggests that in Australia this tendency reflects several strands of social thought: Asianism—a politics of geography and region; multiculturalism—a recognition of the everyday reality of diversity; Britishism—faithfulness to a distant but nostalgic link; and Australianism—cultural distinctiveness in a global world.

With globalization there is a weakening of the idea of language as the fixed sign of state or even personal identity. Essentialized views of cultures are no longer possible except in the world of travel brochures. Monoethnic nation-building still goes on, in societies that teem with regional and social varieties (e.g. Malaysia). Society, however, is no longer seen as bounded and uniform. It comprises layers of change and multilingual contact due to factors like migration, travel, and intermarriage. Language is also extra-territorial. You are a native speaker of Spanish or Chinese but a Japanese citizen. You are a native speaker of Swahili but a French or German citizen. Cosmopolitan common sense. Languages notice cultural boundaries but rarely conform to them: like birds crossing borders. Language is an archaeology of 'language contact'—the connecting of languages and language varieties. Language as a social convention encourages different styles of life and social expression. Look at language and see contact.

The 21st-century trajectory of multiculturalism-multilingualism has shifted from minority language maintenance as a right to language as a resource. What are the benefits of knowing other languages? What social, intellectual, and economic advantages are there in having access to another language and culture?

Multiculturalism varies in its ideologies and implementations. The concept still serves to invigorate language planning and provoke backlash. In its historic Canadian formulation, it is a successful commitment to pluralism, tilting language not towards coercive loyalties and group attachments but shared society.

In Europe, it has provided a transformative alternative to past violence, nationalism, cultural assimilation, and ethnic cleansing. Multiculturalism is, as the Canadian philosopher Charles Taylor notes, a 'work in progress'. Heterogeneous societies in the multicultural 21st century may well look back at the ancient motto of the Roman Empire, *Multis e gentibus vires* (from many peoples, strength).

Chapter 4
People, language, and dangerous things

Bilingual towns and cities

George Washington had humble beginnings. He was self-educated, spoke only English, and did not travel abroad in his lifetime. The third president, Thomas Jefferson, spoke English, French, and Italian, and read Latin, Greek, and Spanish. In the mid-20th century, Franklin Delano Roosevelt was raised speaking French and German by a European governess and gave speeches in French when in Canada. Modern politicians are expected to know other languages. It is a sign of education, of global connectedness.

Grow up in a town with a bilingual community and the experience likely affects what languages you acquire. Italian and German are used in the streets of Trentino-Alto Adige/Südtirol in northern Italy. The villagers of Sauris in Friuli-Venezia Giulia are trilingual, switching between German (Saurano), Italian, and Friulian. Imagine you live in an apartment in Mexico City. Your neighbour Natalie speaks Spanish with you but somehow she knows Russian as well; her grandparents spoke Armenian which she understands but doesn't speak. Jack, your other neighbour, grew up in Greece. He speaks Greek and recently moved to Mexico from Germany where he lived for fifteen years. You're a chef in Jack's Greek restaurant and are starting to pick up Greek but Jack likes to speak German with his partner who is a Turkish-speaking

Berliner. Cui Jian across the street speaks Spanish and Korean with his family. He was brought up in north-east China. He is a 'Chaoxianzu' or Chinese citizen of Korean descent.

The Malaysian capital, Kuala Lumpur, has five spoken languages including Bahasa Malaysia. People are proficient in English as a first language while Mandarin, Cantonese, Hakka Chinese, and then Tamil are spoken in communities. In Canada, bilingualism in Ottawa became official policy in 2002 and municipal services are available in French and English. The British Indian novelist Salman Rushdie dubbed the code-mixed conversations of inner-city dwellers in Bombay and Mumbai HUGME talk—Hindi, Urdu, Gujarati, Marathi, and English.

Belgium's capital, Brussels, is a city with a migrant population and many foreign-language speakers. Of the 104 languages spoken in Brussels, 63 per cent (*Bruxellois*) are native speakers of French, compared to 20 per cent (*Brusseleers*) native Dutch speakers. English has emerged as an intermediary or compromise language in a country that experiences language conflict. There are calls to make English an official language of this international capital.

Erik's story

As we move in and out of places and situations we encounter people who have different languages and different ways of talking. Consider this real-life tale of two bilinguals and their journey through 21st-century multilingual society: 'Erik's story'.

The London-bound train departs Inverness. Erik sits opposite Sophie, a friend from the USA. They were attending a conference in Edinburgh. Sophie remarks on changes in the landscape since her last visit to Scotland, like Scots Gaelic/English signage in the western Highlands. Erik tells Sophie about bilingual signs in Wales and the increase of bilingual (English–Cornish) signage in

the south-west peninsula, as *dasserghyans Kernowek* (the Cornish-language revival), is now on the political agenda. Erik is a Welsh speaker. He mentions the UK's ratification of the European Charter that protects many languages of Britain, such as Scottish Gaelic, Cornish, Scots, Irish Gaelic, and Ulster Scots. 'But you know, Sophie', Erik says, 'you'll see bilingual signs at your local community health centre: Bengali and Turkish, Punjabi and Somali'. They found that Inverness, with a high density of Gaelic speakers, was a centre of the Gaelic scene. Sophie asks about the connection between language and political independence. Scottish identity is inclusive, civic not ethnic, Erik says. It's about belonging. Scots Gaelic plays no significant role in Scottish national identity, unlike the talismanic Catalan language in Catalonia, Spain.

They drink coffee that Erik bought at a station kiosk staffed by two men speaking Persian with each other. In the seats across the aisle, a woman reads a newspaper in Chinese, a commuter gets on in Newcastle and flips open a computer to write in German. Public notices on the walls of the train are displayed in French, German, Spanish, and English. The ticket collector arrives. Erik notices her name tag 'Adamczak'. Polish?

Erik is a nurse in Leeds, Sophie a medical social worker in Chicago. In Erik's surgical unit there are two nurses from Portugal and three from the Philippines. The doctors are English and Egyptian, Indian and German. Medical transplants. England's National Health Service depends on foreign nationals from 200 different countries. Erik's background is mixed: Irish, Welsh, Polish, and English. His passport declares 'Éireannach/Irish' embossed with a list of twenty-four official languages of the European Union. He attended an Irish-medium primary school in Galway. The family moved to Wales and he went to an English-medium school in Cardiff. He has Welsh-speaking friends and speaks Welsh, a *de jure*—official—language of Britain. His uncle is a keen member

of the *Cymdeithas yr Iaith Gymraeg* (Welsh Language Society). One side of Erik's family emigrated to Patagonia, Argentina where they live in a Welsh-speaking community.

Erik tries out his Polish with the ticket collector. His father migrated to Ireland from Poznan in the 1990s and addressed Erik in Polish for the first few years, then gave up. After English, Polish is now the main language spoken in England (half a million speakers), followed by Punjabi, Urdu, Bengali, and Gujarati. Erik's train moves through Britain where place names signpost the invasions, migrations, and transcultural flows in this Atlantic archipelago. The train started from 'Inverness', which means 'mouth of the river Ness' in Scots Gaelic, a language brought by settlers from Ireland in the 4th and 5th centuries. The train passes through Durham (from the Celtic 'dun', hill fort, and Old Norse 'holme', island) and then the ancient capital of York (from *Jórvík*, 9th-century Old Norse). Sophie herself is a Chicagoan and tells Erik that 'Chicago' is a French rendering of 'shikaakwa' a plant name in a Native American Indian language.

Erik and Sophie's train approaches London (a Latinized name of Romano-British origin when Latin was the lingua franca of the early Roman Empire). In each London borough, at least one hundred different languages are spoken. Some languages can be mapped: Brent and Harrow are the most popular for Gujarati, Arabic in Westminster, while Chelsea and Kensington comprise the highest proportion of French, Italian, Spanish, German, and Filipino speakers.

They leave the train and Sophie heads to Heathrow airport. During their entire conversation neither Erik nor Sophie had exchanged a single spoken word. Sophie is deaf and Erik is a CODA ('Child of Deaf Adult'). His Welsh mother is deaf and he was raised in a deaf culture environment. Erik signs BSL (British Sign Language) and Sophie signs ASL (American Sign Language): mutually unintelligible languages. Erik took a course

in ASL at an American, bilingual (ASL/English) university for the education of the deaf—where he met Sophie.

People and their work

People do different things with language, in all kinds of jobs. The jargon of coal-miners and schoolchildren and Buddhist priests' rituals, language games, objects of importance, and ways of thinking. Each person is located in a linguistic space, hearing and seeing themselves as distinctive.

The British linguist J. R. Firth put forward the notion, 'speech fellowship'. The speech of peoples whose words and sounds are similar in structure and function creates a bond of fellowship based a truly common experience. Local dialects and occupational dialects are statements of association, of identity. When you speak to others you are also speaking to yourself, confirming who and what you are. Consider these categories of people, their working lives, identities, and languages.

The singers

Korean K-pop singers learn to give interviews, and sing, in English, Japanese, and Mandarin Chinese. French chanson singer Mireille Mathieu sings in French, English, German, Spanish, and Russian. Shakira Isabel Mebarak Ripoll is a singer, songwriter, and social activist, the child of a Colombian mother and Lebanese father. Shakira is an Arabic name meaning 'grateful'. She grew up in the coastal town of Barranquilla, northern Colombia, and is a native Spanish speaker who speaks English and Portuguese, as well as some Italian, French, and Arabic.

The actors

In drama, fluency in language and skilled communication are the tools of work. Israeli-American film actor Natalie Portman

(née Neta-Lee Hershlag) speaks English, Hebrew, French, Japanese, German, and Arabic. Audrey Hepburn was a style icon, and spoke several languages including English, French, Dutch, Italian, Spanish, and German. She was born in Brussels and lived between Belgium, England, and the Netherlands. British actor Christopher Lee was famed for his portrayal of Dracula and dubbed his own voice in films, speaking English, Italian, French, Spanish, and German. He appeared in 'Lord of the Rings' with Viggo Mortensen who speaks English, Danish, Spanish, French, and Italian and who grew up speaking English with his mother and Danish with his father.

The players

You may acquire a second native language during childhood due to an overseas sojourn—like the basketball player Kobe Bryant who moved to Lazio when he was six where he acquired native Italian then Spanish. You may grow up monolingual but learn a foreign language in later life, like tennis player Serena Williams who gives on-court interviews in French and Italian. In the community of the team and in the media spotlight new players are expected to learn the common language of their adopted team. Many foreign players in American baseball arrive with no English conversation. Texas Rangers' starting lineup has English-fluent and multilingual players from Curaçao, South Korea, Cuba, Puerto Rico, Dominican Republic, and Japan.

At the foundation of English football in the early 20th century, the English Football Association was the domain of teams of mostly fair-haired monolingual lads with spirit. This is now an endangered species, as English football switched to teams with footballers and managers from overseas who are urbane, worldly, and polyglot. There are players from seventy different nations represented in the English Premier League. Continental football teams, at all levels of the Bundesliga, Serie A, and La Liga, have people of many language backgrounds.

Cristiano Ronaldo dos Santos Aveiro from Madeira, an island in the Portuguese archipelago, grew up speaking standard European Portuguese and dialectal Madeirense. His later languages came from different places of work—Manchester United (England) and Real Madrid (Spain): 'I speak three or four languages in the locker room. Good or bad, I speak Spanish, English, Portuguese, a bit of French and also some words in German.'

Another footballer, Zlatan Ibrahimović, was born in Sweden to a Bosniak father and Croatian mother which led him to acquire the language of the environment (Swedish) and the home (Bosnian). He learned English at school. When he joined Juventus the Italian club sent him a language teacher twice a week. Eventually he told her he couldn't cope. He would pick it up, fast, in the changing rooms and the hotels: and he did. Changing cities and clubs he learnt Spanish and Italian. There is an additional factor here: the 'identity' of the first language. Swedish is a lesser-known language in the world compared to Spanish or French. Scandinavians, Finns, and the Dutch have a reputation for being good at learning languages, particularly English. It is more than simply having effective school systems.

The managers

José Mário dos Santos Mourinho Félix managed Benfica, Porto, Inter Milan, Chelsea, and Manchester United. He is not only 'the special one', he is fluent in Spanish, Portuguese, Italian, French, English, and some Catalonian. A rival manager, Arsène Wenger, grew up in Alsace, Bas-Rhin, speaking the Alsatian dialect of Low Alemannic German in this German-speaking province. Wenger is fluent in French, German, and English as well as knowing some Italian and Spanish. He became aware of the importance of speaking English when training for his coaching badge, and enrolled in a language course in England.

Managers know that playing football is not enough. When Catalan- and Spanish-speaking Josep 'Pep' Guardiola Sala (b.1971) retired

as manager of Barcelona, leaving for FC Bayern Munchen, he embarked on a six-month German course. In the multilingual Bundesliga, English is a lingua franca but German is essential. Watch Pep Guardiola and other football managers answer questions in different languages at post-game press conferences. Arsène Wenger has commented that Russian, American, and French players are quite happy playing football without talking together. That's when football becomes an obstacle to improving communication—essential on and off the pitch. Managers must push players to learn the lingua franca of the club and the city they live in. Managers must work inside the team. Wenger has noted that the first thing that dies when a team's high dynamic goes down is communication. Cliques, based on languages, are formed.

The atmosphere in the English Premier League is less sympathetic to multilingualism than elsewhere in the football world. There are sometimes attempts to enforce a common language, i.e. English. When he was manager of Newcastle United, Alan Pardew imposed fines on their five French players if they did not learn English. Manager Louis Van Gaal insisted that all Manchester United players communicate in English even if they were together, sharing a native language. What is the objection to players chatting in Dutch or players sharing stories in Spanish? Does prohibiting sports professionals from communicating in their own languages, in all circumstances, raise issues of language rights?

Now available in Náhuatl

Both Florentine poet Dante Alighieri and libertarian English poet John Milton claimed independence for the poetry of the vernacular. Three linguistic events coalesce in one decade, in mid-16th-century Spain. Fray Luis Ponce de León, an Augustinian friar, academic, and lyric poet during the Spanish Golden Age, translated the biblical Song of Songs into Spanish. He was imprisoned in 1571 for two reasons. He had translated into the corrupt vernacular (Spanish), and he translated from the original

source language Hebrew (the corrupt original) bypassing Latin, which was deemed ideologically correct.

In the same year, King Philip II of Spain declared Náhuatl to be the official language of New Spain, to facilitate communication. This led Spanish missionaries to learn and spread Náhuatl, as a lingua franca, among Indians in the region, in Honduras and San Salvador. When another Spanish priest, Bernardhino de Sahagún, started to translate the Bible—including the Song of Songs—into Náhuatl, in alphabetic script, the Inquisition once again stepped in with a prohibition, on linguistic grounds.

Four centuries later both the Song of Songs and *Waiting for Godot* (Samuel Beckett) are available in Náhuatl. The Náhuatl language play *In Oc Ticchia In Godot* was written originally in French (*En attendant Godot*). Besides Spanish, there are sixty-two national languages in Mexico including Maya, Zapotec, Mixtec, and Otomí. Náhuatl is the most widely spoken, with 1.5 million native speakers. Beckett did not speak Irish, but an Irish translation of the play, *Ag Fanacht Le Godot*, is also available. He himself translated the play into English. Rather than sophisticated, sexed-up versions, Beckett urged translators to retain the 'alienated strangeness' of literally translated French, the strangeness of the vernacular.

Translation is a feeling of strangeness. It is an experience of the *unheimlich*, a feeling of literally not-being-at-home but experiencing things as strangely familiar. When Spanish writer Miguel de Cervantes' hero of *Don Quixote* (1620) quit his library for the streets of the real world, he heard strange languages and dialects, eagerly translating them into his own world of understanding. His library had made him monolingual. It had given him a singular world of heroic stories, adventures, and damsels in distress and he believed in his library's promise. When he stepped into the square of La Mancha it was only with difficulty that he could work out what people around him were doing and

saying. Don Quixote wanted the world to sound like his library. Multilingualism is a common sense world that permits us to hear the sounds of the world, to translate them and strive to understand to them.

Working people who need two or more languages come from all walks of life: street vendors, scientists, taxi drivers, opera singers, sports professionals, business people, actors, tourist guides, shop owners, truck drivers, and academics. Cosmopolitan 17th-century English poet John Milton knew ten languages and wrote in four, including Latin. 'Epitaphium Damonis', words of farewell, from a poet to a loved language, was written in 1645, in Latin, by Milton at a time when Latin was declining as the language of international scholarship.

Omnia non licet uni,
Non sperasse uni licet omnia

(One person cannot do everything, nor even hope to do everything).

Following this poem he would abandon Latin for English. It was a momentous decision. Milton's visit to Italy, in 1638, was decisive. From Dante and Bembo to Ariosto, over a period of 250 years from 1300, Italian intellectuals debated the *Questione della Lingua*—the varying claims of Latin and the *volgare*, the vernaculars. In Florence, Milton talked with wunderkind Hugo Grotius and Galileo Galilei in their own languages—Dutch and Italian—and came to a new appreciation of vernacular speech. This London poet was republican and libertarian, a passionate supporter of the English Revolution (1640–60) who felt that England's new republic was best served by vernacular literature. His poetry, in a small offshore language, 'English', would not be easily understood by Europe and the rest of the world. Milton was appointed 'Secretary for Foreign Tongues' in charge of the new English Republic's overseas correspondence in Latin and other languages.

Foreign languages and the outsider

The poet Joseph Brodsky, a Jewish Russian who became poet laureate of the United States, liked to say that to see some things clearly you must become a stranger. The 20th-century Irish novelist James Joyce, in *A Portrait of the Artist as a Young Man*, had Stephen Dedalus propose the magical formulation: 'The shortest way to Tara is via Holyhead', meaning that in order to understand something and get close to it (e.g. Ireland), you must leave it and go into exile (i.e. go to the nearest port). The way to the inside is outside. The shortest way to your language is through another.

To enter another language, even for one moment, is to become an exile. It makes you question your origins. The German poet Rainer Maria Rilke fell in love with Russia in his youth and wrote poetry in Russian which, like his Italian poetry, was grammatically flawed and as uncomfortable as Goethe's English verses. But Rilke persevered, with an allegiance to poetry itself.

All language is fugitive. It resides on the edges. A poet may write in a dominant language but write on the periphery, informed by other commitments, by local myths and thoughts and the sounds of another language, like Ireland's poet Seamus Heaney who wrote that not to learn Irish, 'hear' Irish, was to miss the opportunity to grasp what life in Ireland had meant and could mean in the future, to cut oneself off from ways of being at home. The Saint Lucia poet Derek Walcott writes of the colonized space of the West Indies, that there is duality of imagination and act, as bodies think in one language and move in another. The desire to write in a foreign language is an idealization, an effort at linguistic weightlessness, words unburdened by the irrelevant associations of the mother tongue.

Rilke wrote his last poetry in French, perhaps in order to counter the familiarity and predictability that his mother tongue obscured.

As the French poet Léon-Paul Fargue commented, 'He deeply loved our language… and he conversed in it and wrote it with a nuanced awkwardness.' Rilke delighted in this awkwardness by moving to French-speaking Valais in Switzerland.

The writers

The American poet and memoirist Maya Angelou (see Figure 4) had a lifelong love for the 'sounds of languages', and though she wrote in English, every word was a choice between one variety of language or another. She spoke French, Spanish, Hebrew, Italian, and Fanti. Novelists and poets who write in non-native languages have found the experience creative and liberating—sweeping away natural inhibitions, opening up new ways of thinking as words slip off their normal burden of associations.

By the age of thirty-six, Joseph Conrad started to write seriously but could not return to his native Poland. Being an exile and an



4. Maya Angelou reciting her poem 'On the Pulse of Morning', President Bill Clinton's inauguration, Washington, USA, 1993.

orphan led him away from intimate literary ties with the Polish language. Changing language in mid-career was not uncommon for 20th-century Russian émigré writers like Vladimir Nabokov, for whom English was as native as French was for the Russian elite. His contemporary, Elsa Triolet (née Ella Iurievna Kagana), began as a Russian novelist in 1896. Following her move to France when she was twenty-two she began writing in French in 1938, becoming a major figure in French literature and the first woman to receive the Prix Goncourt, France's prestigious literary prize. Her distinctive French style bore the influence of *bylina*, the Russian oral epics. Writing in both Russian and her adoptive language, she spoke in Russian-accented French but used Russian whenever possible.

Leo Tolstoy (1828–1910), author of *War and Peace* and *Anna Karenina*, was a literary genius and Christian anarcho-pacifist. He spoke thirteen languages, with varying proficiency, including several Slavic tongues, and his family library included books in thirty-nine languages. As a Russian aristocrat, Tolstoy exchanged English letters with Mohandas K. Gandhi, discussing non-violence and global politics. At Kazan University, he studied Turkish and Arabic, and he took up Hebrew and ancient Greek at the age of fifty in order to study the Bible. Extensive passages and dialogue in *War and Peace* were written in French, reflecting how French was spoken among the educated classes, and Tolstoy translated the opening paragraph, written in French, into Russian for the 1873 edition.

For the Russian aristocracy of the 19th century, French was learned and cultivated—the elite employed tutors to learn this essential language of *haute culture* and *haute société*. Paradoxically, French was the language of the enemy. As the French invasion of Russia continued and Moscow burned, the Russian aristocracy sought private tutors in Russian. Tolstoy describes the rise of anti-French sentiment in 1812 such that Moscow society was urged to speak only Russian, with fines for violators. To this the exasperated

socialite in *War and Peace*, Julie Drubetskaya, complains, 'Nel'zya govorit', kak skuchno!' (It's impossible to talk, how boring!) (V.III:191). Language attitudes emerge. Tolstoy describes how Helen Bezukhov switches to French during a family argument, noting that somehow Russian lacks *neyasnost* (clarity) (V.III:307). The French language is portrayed as logical and refined while Russian is plodding and honest. Pierre proposes to the story's *femme fatale*, Hélène, with 'Je vous aime' (I love you), but when the marriage collapses, Pierre blames the French language.

Chapter 5
Individual multilingualism: one mind, many languages

Multilingualism is good for you

To have a language is more than possession of a skill. It is a complex experience. Each speaker is a local example of all human languages. Knowing other languages makes a person a little more at home in the world, more prepared for its complexity. When I learn another language my goal is not to replicate a foreign native speaker, but rather to enable me to do different things and see new perspectives. It raises my ability to understand and interpret, to empathize with other peoples as I gain exposure to their daily life and practices, literature and beliefs, aesthetic ideas, humour, and history. Learning another language is linked to expanded social relations, new possibilities for dialogue and cultural awareness, analytic orientation towards language, intellectual development and self awareness, career and job competitiveness, divergent thinking, cognitive control, and social mobility.

While societal multilingualism refers to linguistic diversity found in a country or community, individual multilingualism means a person's ability in languages other than their mother tongue. Such a person is termed 'bilingual' or 'trilingual' depending on the situation. When we study individual multilingualism we observe how individuals use two or more languages in their lives, among friends, in the workplace, or with family. It involves practical

issues like the education of children from different language backgrounds and language maintenance in immigrant communities. It involves how the brain processes more than one language, how speakers switch between languages when they speak or write, the impact of language on identity, and language loss and maintenance.

The continuum of language

A multilingual person is located along a language continuum that ranges from a learner who has just started on another language (e.g. a migrant), to a person who has a native command of both languages (e.g. a long-term resident). Our knowledge of languages is constantly changing. It is not a solid state. Language can be learned and lost. There are numerous ways of describing our relationships with first and second or other languages.

'Ideal equilingualism' is an idealized concept meaning equally skilled in both languages. This was an early and extreme definition of language competence ('a native-like control' of two languages) proposed by American linguist Leonard Bloomfield in 1923. The terms 'control' and 'native-like' are unclear. It is rare for an individual to pass for a native speaker (reader, writer, listener) in both languages and in several areas of language performance. A weaker version of this concept is symmetrical or 'balanced bilingualism', which means equally skilled in both languages: an individual who is able to cope in a school/college classroom, for example. This is difficult because one language will normally be dominant in particular contexts. As a native speaker of Arabic who studied physics and chemistry in Moscow for six years, your scientific literacy skills are likely to be higher in Russian than Arabic.

Also, language control is subject to factors like concentration, the surroundings, fatigue, and age. This is where the notion of

'asymmetrical bilingualism' comes in—the ability to function in some of the four language abilities but not all dimensions of language abilities: listening, speaking, reading, and writing. A person may understand spoken utterances but lack control in speaking. Ancient Egyptian hieroglyphics are only read since the language is no longer spoken. Renowned English Orientalist Arthur Waley (1889–1966), whose translations included the 11th-century Japanese *Tale of Genji* and 16th-century Chinese novel *Monkey*, was not able to speak either Mandarin Chinese or Japanese.

Persons at the initial stages of learning, 'incipient bilingualism', are at the point where they can produce complete, meaningful sentences in the other language. As fluency develops, and their complexity of skills increases, they enter the stage of 'ascendant bilingualism'. This contrasts with 'recessive bilingualism' when fluency is decreasing, when a speaker's language is rarely used or 'dormant', perhaps as a result of migration to another country. A language can be forgotten, as when endangered-language speakers have no interaction with other speakers. A person who was fluent in school or college may lose contact with the language. Drastic language regression may result in the disintegration of some communicative functions, such as parts of grammar and vocabulary, as a different language is replacing another: 'language loss' or 'attrition'.

'Covert multilingualism' is the situation in which individuals deny competency and knowledge of other languages, perhaps due to societal pressure. Recent immigrants or pupils who have returned to school from residence overseas ('returnees') may pretend ignorance of the language. A returnee may even assume a 'broken' foreign accent so as not to stand out, to assimilate: play dumb, play monolingual. One visitor to Belgium claimed that Flemings sometimes declined to speak French if the enquirer was perceived as Belgian but would communicate if the person was identified as a foreign French speaker.

The era of negative multilingualism/bilingualism

Some commentary about children raised in two or more languages can be negative, even tinged with xenophobia. Historically, there was criticism that multilingual life diverged from the norm/normal, i.e. monolingualism—that it impeded the proper unity of mind and character. Bilingualism, it was argued, leads to semilingualism, partial knowledge of two languages in which a person knows neither well.

Bloomfield (1923) described the speech of the North American Indian, White Thunder, in Wisconsin: 'White Thunder, a man around 40, speaks less English than Menomini, and that is a strong indictment, for his Menomini is atrocious. His vocabulary is small, his inflections are often barbarous, and he constructs sentences of a few threadbare models. He may be said to speak no language tolerably.' In fact, White Thunder's was a dying language, subject to the dominant influence of English. Bloomfield was likely comparing his reduced, stigmatized speech with that of older speakers. There were no assessment criteria of White Thunder's proficiency, nor detail of the speaker's performance in social situations like work, ritual, and conversations with different age groups.

In 1928, de Reynold, an educator in Switzerland, believed that using two or more languages had 'certain detrimental effects' such as confusion and lack of self-discipline, and Weisgerber in Germany (1933) warned that bilingualism endangered the intellectual integrity of the whole ethnic group. Danish linguist Otto Jespersen, in his influential book *Language: Its Nature, Development and Origin* (1922), held that 'if a bilingual man has two strings to his bow, both are slack'.

The effort to speak two languages, it was argued, imposes a mental burden on the child resulting in fatigue and a reduction in the ability to think properly and clearly. It was argued that bilingualism robs

the child of time to learn other things. In a 1923 study of 1,400 Welsh English bilingual children in Wales, Saer concluded that bilingualism caused lower intelligence due to 'strain', 'effort', 'energy', and 'low output'. Saer failed to study the role of social differences between monolingual and bilingual children. When the same data were reanalysed forty years later, no statistically significant differences were found between monolingual and bilingual children.

The era of positive bilingualism

Research by Elizabeth Peal and Wallace Lambert in Canada in the 1960s heralded a turning point in the study of multilingual individuals. They investigated the effects of bilingualism in children in six French primary schools in Montreal, comparing a similar group of monolingual children: matched for sex, age, and socio-economic class. Their studies compared thinking styles and strategies, showing that bilingual children performed better than monolinguals on both nonverbal and verbal IQ tests, and achieved better results in homework:

> Intellectually, [the bilingual's] experience with two language systems seems to have left him with a mental flexibility, a superiority in concept formation, and a more diversified set of mental abilities, in the sense that the patterns of abilities developed by bilinguals were more heterogeneous... In contrast, the monolingual appears to have a more unitary structure of intelligence which he must use for all types of intellectual tasks.

Cognitive development

Knowing other languages has a positive effect on cognitive development, in particular 'executive control'—resolving competition and focusing attention. The bilingual mind is not two independent entities, or boxed languages. There is interaction between them at all times. Words from language Y facilitate retrieval in language Z ('cross-linguistic priming').

Learning a language helps maintain healthy brain function. Canadian neuroscientist Ellen Białystok shows that regularly speaking two or more languages has a positive effect on the brain and can delay symptoms of dementia. Languages reconfigure the brain network. Studying monolingual or bilingual patients with Alzheimer's disease at a Toronto geriatric centre, bilinguals' deterioration was noticed and diagnosed when they were older than monolinguals, by four years. A repeated study with 200 patients produced the same results, adding that even when bilinguals with advanced Alzheimer's have significantly more damage than monolinguals they are able to cope with the disease better. Studies of multilingual individuals by Edinburgh neuroscientist Thomas Bak show that they score higher on attention and concentration tests than monolinguals, whether a second language was acquired in infancy, childhood, or their teens. Learning another language improves brain function regardless of the starting age.

Knowing and learning other languages fosters creativity. Research with many different language pairs—English and languages like Chinese, Tamil, Polish, German, Yoruba, and Italian—suggests that ownership of two languages makes a child more open and elastic. The richness of verbal and cultural experience is crucial to intellectual development. Multilinguals may have an aptitude for selective attention—the ability to focus on what information is relevant. This 'filtering' ability might derive from the practice of 'code-switching': thinking that alternates between two different languages.

Multilingualism in the family

The Meng family migrated to Philadelphia from Cambodia. The children use Khmer at home, some Chinese when Skyping grandparents in Phnom Penh, and English at school. The youngest child, unlike the eldest child, learned to speak Khmer in America and hardly speaks Chinese. His mother fears for her fluency and

interest in Khmer. Such language attrition is referred to as 'subtractive bilingualism'. There are various ways to understand this language phenomenon. Two concepts are useful: compound and coordinate bilingualism. A person may learn two languages in the same environment and use the same meaning for corresponding words in the same language: two signifiers for one thing signified. Neither language is dominant. This kind of fused representation of two or more languages in the brain is traditionally termed 'compound bilingualism'. By contrast, a person may learn a language in different communities or contexts. Linguistic expression is kept separate, while the meanings of words may differ in different contexts. This means that for any one word or expression, the child possesses two signifiers and two signifieds.

In addition to French being spoken in their house in Bordeaux, France, Jack speaks German to his children and Adile addresses them in Turkish. Two parallel systems. This is because Jack and Adile have adopted a one person/one language policy (*une personne une langue*). This is a popular approach adopted by parents to foster simultaneous bilingualism, whereby children are addressed at an early age in two different spoken languages. This is different from 'sequential bilingualism', where languages are learned one after another.

The theory of *une personne une langue* was introduced by a student of the Swiss linguist Ferdinand de Saussure (1857–1913) in Paris. Maurice Grammont's idea, in his *Observations sur le langage des enfants* (1902), was that the child need not be 'taught' anything. It is enough to speak. Select one of the languages and use it so that each language has its own representative. If it is French then the French speaker will speak, if German then the language is symbolized by a German speaker and the roles are also maintained. Roles are not reversed.

Grammont passed on his theory to fellow linguist Jules Ronjat, who was married to a German in Paris. Ronjat's speciality was

Occitan, a language of southern France and Catalonia. Ronjat implemented the 'Grammont formula' with little Louis and published his careful record and transcription of his son's development from birth to 4.10 years.

Louis was born in 1908 at Vienne by the River Rhône in France, and grew up trilingual: fluent French and German with some knowledge of Franco-Provençal (related to Occitan). The experiment was successful, and throughout his later life he adjusted his speech according to his interlocutors. Ronjat's influential biography was published as *Le Développement du Langage observe chez un enfant bilingue* (*The Development of Language: Observations of a Bilingual Child*). The approach has been taken up by generations of parents and children, suggesting that in a multilingual household, by separating languages from the beginning, there might be greater clarity of usage since each language has a different (adult) model. Language switching is natural and visual. Adults have the opportunity of fostering their own emotional relationship with their children. The one person/one language procedure, applied consistently, sets linguistic boundaries and helps organize the world of knowledge.

The configuration of multilingual families

'Additive bilingualism'—when both languages are developed and their culture valued—flourishes when a child is raised by bilingual parents. 'Subtractive bilingualism' is when learning a second language occurs at the expense of the first language. One language replaces another, as when a migrant child is expected to learn the local language rapidly, without reference to the first language. Research suggests that children's performance in school is enhanced in an additive bilingual environment compared to a situation where the first language and culture is devalued or lost.

There are many configurations of multilingual families. Daniel and Mimi live and work in Athens. Daniel grew up in Barcelona and his

family spoke to each other in Spanish and Catalan. His wife Mimi is Syrian, a native speaker of Arabic, and Daniel speaks some Arabic. They communicate with each other and with their children in English, mixed with some Greek, except Mimi normally speaks to the children in Arabic. The dominant language of the surrounding environment is Greek and the children go to Greek schools. The input of Catalan and Spanish is the next step in the process. Daniel and Mimi contemplate reading (biliteracy), linking up with local Spanish and Catalan speakers, Skype with grandparents, and trips to visit family in Spain. Here are some other configurations.

A. Parents have different languages. One is the dominant language of the surrounding community. They use the other (non-dominant) language between each other and to the child.
B. Parents have different languages. One is the dominant language of the community. They use both languages to the child. Parents may or may not have mutual competency in the languages.
C. Parents have different languages. Neither is the dominant language of the surrounding community. They use both languages to the child.
D. Parents share a common language, which is different from the community. They use this language between each other and to the child.

Multilingual 'mix-mix': code-switching

Community languages are often concentrated in urban areas. In newsstands in Cape Town or Luxembourg, magazines and newspapers are available in ten different languages. In cities like Melbourne, Berlin, and Detroit, schoolchildren of migrant backgrounds bring different languages to the classroom. A child in the city will hear many languages from infancy.

A common characteristic of multilingual communities is 'code-switching', which is an extension of a speaker's language

repertoire. It is not the result of confusion or an inability to separate language. Rather, it is a way of stylistic enhancement of ordinary speech, also used in writing. The juxtaposition of two languages may be the result of ordinary multilingualism in a community or it may be for literary effect. Child psychologists in Montreal comparing groups of monolingual and bilingual pre-school children found that the more toddlers switched between languages the more successful they were, compared to monolinguals, when doing conflict-inhibition tasks: being instructed to match different sized blocks and buckets and identifying confusing images of objects embedded in pictures.

Code-switching goes like this. You are reading a newspaper in language A when the article switches to language B. You switch on the TV and watch an interviewer and interviewee, or a panel discussion, switching between languages A and B. In both cases there is an alternation between two languages in the same conversation or text.

We often code-switch with fillers or tags, as in this English–French example, 'It's a big miscalculation! *N'est-ce pas*?' ('... Isn't it?'). In Paraguay, code-switching operates like this. Paraguayan Guarani and Spanish coexist in a situation of so-called 'stable bilingualism'. Guarani is used in the countryside. In the city, in formal contexts, Spanish is used. However, when speakers are close (intimate) then Guarani will be used, especially when the topic is lighthearted, like when telling a joke. In casual situations, men tend to use more Guarani, women more Spanish.

Code-switching is common in multilingual countries like the Philippines. Most educated Filipinos are multilingual: bilingual in a mother tongue (e.g. Bikol) and a regional language (Cebuano), and speaking English (from school education) and Filipino (the Tagalog-based national language). If they have had at least a high-school education, they are bilingual in English and Filipino.

Code-switching is a normal part of a person's repertoire. It occurs no matter if the languages are far apart or whether there is structural and lexical affinity between the languages. Systematic switching between one language and another can occur within a sentence ('intrasentential') with alternate constituents as (Russian–French): 'Chustvovali, chto le rouge est tiré mais OK' ('They felt the wine was uncorked but OK'). It may be sentence by sentence ('intersentential') as (English–Irish): 'Good to meet you, Dr Frehan. Suigh sios ansin' ('... Please sit down').

Code-switching is also used for (a) humorous effect as (Japanese) 'Shinjirarenai, kare wa! Hakkiri itta. Get lost' ('Unbelievable, that guy. I told him straight...'). (b) To add social markers of cultural importance, like when inserting the respect marker 'ho/po' in Tagalog, 'May I be excused po?' (c) Sudden exclamation, as when an Italian speaker stubs her toe and cries in English 'Ouch!' instead of 'Ahi!' (d) To vary conversational style. (e) To express attitudes and feelings (excitement, disapproval, sadness). (f) To draw attention and persuade. (g) To express taboo or uncomfortable words (sexual topics) which are otherwise difficult to say. (h) To convey a particular idea or thought. (i) As a marker to switch topics. (j) For private communication so that others will not understand. (k) To convey an idiom or concept with no direct equivalent, as in the Samoan and English, 'Hi! How are you doing?' 'O lea tata le vae matua!' ('The big toe is tapping!' = I am very well).

Language contact over a long period may result in much closer language mixing: a stable mixture of two languages, a fused 'lect'. Examples of mixed languages include: Chinglish (Cantonese–English), Denglish (English–German), Dunglish (Dutch–English), Englog (English–Tagalog), Franglais (French–English), Franponais (French–Japanese), Greeklish (Greek–English), Manglish (Malay–English), and Svorsk (Swedish–Norwegian). In language fusion there is a base language. When different language communities mix, the lexico-grammatical

structure of the language undergoes change also. Consider the following conversation:

Bon swear (Good evening)
Tawnshi kiya (How are you?)
Si bon (Great)

This is Michif, the speech of Métis communities in Manitoba and Saskatchewan (Canada) and North Dakota (USA). In North America, when the Cree and Nakota peoples traded with French and Scottish Canadians, a mixed language emerged combining Cree and Métis French with additional borrowing from English.

The difference between switching and mixing is blurred but switching is usually an identifiable alternation between languages, a visible sign of language contact. This is different from code-mixing. In code-mixing, a speaker of language A transfers the rules of one language to another. Monolingual speakers frequently misunderstand code-switching as language deficit. However, code-switching is a sophisticated linguistic tool, showing heightened sensitivity to the surrounding language environment and the potential of language for wider expression.

Diglossia

Connected to code-switching is the phenomenon of diglossia, a situation where two (or more) distinct varieties of a language coexist in society, associated with different social functions. While doing fieldwork on Arabic in the Middle East in the 1950s, the American linguist Charles A. Ferguson (1921–1998) made the observation that in any speech community, 'two varieties of a language exist side by side throughout the community with each having a definite role to play'. He called this situation 'diglossia'. Two distinct varieties exist, one form (High) being used only for formal occasions and the other form (Low) being used in informal, everyday settings.

We use very different styles of the same language for different social settings: giving a public address, at work, church liturgy, in the classroom (diglossia without bilingualism). These styles may or may not be ranked in a social hierarchy and may, in fact, involve different languages (diglossia with bilingualism). The Norman conquest of England, in 1066, created a ruling elite that spoke Anglo-Norman while commoners spoke English. Classical Tibetan was the high register known to all Tibetans (now Lhasa-based Standard Tibetan) compared to many mutually unintelligible low register vernaculars like Dzongkha and Amdo Tibetan.

In Luxembourg, for instance, there is an L variety of German called *Letzebuergesch* which is used in ordinary conversation and an H variety—Standard German—which is used for newspapers and books. Another case of diglossia is Swiss German (*Schweizerdeutsch*) and High German in Switzerland. In the Maghreb most of the population of Algeria speaks Algerian Arabic and government business, media, and higher education is conducted in French. This implies diglossia—classical Arabic alongside other Arabic dialects—and bilingualism (Arabic and French).

Chapter 6
Politics, language, and the state

Politics needs language

National anthems—patriotic musical compositions—are mostly written in the official languages of the country. The Kenyan anthem is sung in Kiswahili, and Fiji has lyrics in English and Fijian. 'God Defend New Zealand' is sung in both English and Māori, while South Africa's anthem has four stanzas sung in five languages, and 'Majulah Singapura' ('Onward Singapore') is sung in Malay only. National anthems are mostly about war and battles (Albania, USA, France, Turkey) or the country itself (Libya, Australia, Canada) or people (UK), or friendship (Slovenia). Moldova's national anthem focuses on language.

Limba noastră
Limba noastră-i o comoară
În adîncuri înfundată
Un șirag de piatră rară
Pe moșie revărsată.

Our Language
A treasure is our language that surges
From deep shadows of the past,
Chain of precious stones that scattered
All over our ancient land.

Written in a romantic style, 'Limba noastră' calls upon the nation to embrace its native language. The Welsh national anthem, *Hen Wlad Fy Nhadau* (*Land of My Fathers*), has a similar message: 'Os treisiodd y gelyn fy ngwlad tan ei droed | Mae hen iaith y Cymry mor fyw ag erioed' ('If the enemy oppresses my land under his foot | The old language of the Welsh is as alive as ever').

Politics needs language to make proposals and form alliances. 'Big politics' is public affairs, the governance of social life, parliament and party politics, and the distribution of power and resources. Language and power politics notably converged in the Hebrew Bible's myth of Babel. In big politics, policies are formulated, like laws about the use of official and minority languages. As part of the Magyarization policy, the Hungarian Nationalities Law of 1868 constituted all peoples of the Kingdom of Hungary, whatever their nationality, as 'one single nation, the indivisible, unitary Hungarian nation'. This effectively removed minority languages from the administration, justice system, and schools. By contrast, Belgium's first 'law on the use of languages' (1873) instated Dutch as the main language of Flanders. In big politics, entities like the state and its agencies make language policy decisions on behalf of other people.

'Life politics' is described by the English sociologist Anthony Giddens, in *Modernity and Self-identity*, as our day-to-day life in the community: the making of decisions, big and small. Life politics is the choices we make—like whether a parent chooses to pass on her own (minority) language to her children or let it go. Life politics concerns the moral order, personal identity, and the politics of recognition of difficult interfaces. It involves the politics of culture, the politics of the family, and of its life course. Life politics is sometimes described by philosophers and sociologists as 'sub-politics' (Ulrich Beck), 'anthroponomics' (Daniel Bertaux), *le vécù* (lived experience, Paul Ricœur), *Erlebnisgesellschaft* (Gerhard Schulze), 'new moral order' (Zygmunt Bauman), and *habitus* (Pierre Bourdieu). Life politics in multilingual society

involves life policies such as the language configuration in our community and group, and what languages we choose to study for school and career.

Politics, nationalism, and the state

National standard languages, as the English historian Eric Hobsbawm (1917–2012) noted, are the product of nationalism not the other way round. The demise of the old order and the ordinance of new values was symbolized by the French Revolution's banner of liberty, equality, and fraternity. The subsequent failure of the slogan to solve social and national divisions led to a turning inward among nations and a suspicion of cosmopolitanism. France itself embarked on suppression of its regional language minorities. In Italy, where only 2 per cent of the population used Italian at unification, the Piedmontese nationalist leader Massimo d'Azeglio (1798–1866) announced: 'We have made Italy, now we must make Italians.'

Language is a vehicle of political governance. When a language is selected and promoted by a government or a majority population, this new linguistic thing becomes a political tool to craft a unified state. This is what happened after the downfall of the British Raj (Crown rule) in India and the 1947 partition. In response to the imposition of 'Urdu and only Urdu' in East Pakistan by the politically dominant Western wing, there was political agitation for the promotion of Bangla (Bengali) as a national language. This led to the *Bhasha Andolôn*, the Bengali Language Movement, resulting in violent clashes on Dhaka University campus on 21 February 1952 and the death of language activists. Bangla became a crucial factor in the Bangladeshi War of Independence of 1971. In commemoration of the struggle for Bengali language rights, UNESCO designated 21 February as 'International Mother Language Day'.

When language is imposed, it becomes the inevitable medium for literature, education, and public affairs. The situation might also

become a linguistic nightmare where a majority of the population do not use the language in everyday life and cannot express important feelings and ideas in it. The imposition of Manila-based Tagalog (Filipino) as the national language of the Philippines prompted the Cebu provincial government to protest by singing the national anthem in Cebuano.

National unification

The construction of national identity is assisted quintessentially through language. From the age of revolutions, the American (1776) and the French (1789) and the Napoleonic wars, the concept of the nation state took shape looking for appropriate symbols. However, the symbolic weight of language had to contend with the linguistically mixed populations of the nation states of Europe.

The romantic movement of the 19th century came to exert a powerful influence. The classic European discourse of *Mitteleuropa*, aided by German philosophy, emphasized a cultural commonality deriving from a 'spirit', the personality of its people as cultural nation (*Kulturnation*), with a common religion (*Religionsnation*), a shared history/memory (*Geschichtsnation*), and common ethnic/racial descent (*Völkische Nation*). The nation was more than a mere political unit. The nation became an organic entity consisting of people with one body (*Volkskörper*) meaning that a nation defines itself by a national language (*Sprachnation*).

Where one language is idealized as the collective consciousness of a people, multilingualism is a complication. This is summed up in President Theodore Roosevelt's declaration, in 1919, in his 'Letter to the American Defense League': 'We have room for but one language in this country, and that is the English language, for we intend to see that the crucible turns our people out as Americans, of American nationality, and not as dwellers in a polyglot boarding house.'

Language planning, power, and manifestos

Nations formulate policy goals through the exercise of power, in legislation, and in court decisions. Language planning draws upon many levels of society. There are local initiatives and grassroots agencies. The moves by individual citizens in Cornwall to set up Cornish-language signage outside cafés, and along streets and footpaths, are language-planning initiatives.

Power concentrated in a single language across a multiethnic and multilingual territory over a long period may separate ethnic groups from their languages, as with the Tharu of multilingual Nepal, in the foothills of the Himalayas. Though recognized as an official nationality they are a people in search of a language. There is no Tharu language to connect and unify a community spanning Nepal and India. Following the Gurkha seizure of territory in 1769, Nepal adopted a policy of one language, one nation, lasting 250 years. The result was rule by the high-caste Arya-Khas and their language Khas. The monolingual thrust continued during the Rana regime from the mid-19th century, when various ethnolinguistic groups were adopting Khas as the lingua franca, subsequently named 'Nepali' and designated as the country's 'official language'. The new constitution of 2015 did not recognize the languages of the *janajati*, 'the indigenous peoples', but recent changes in Nepal's assimilationist politics have brought new bilingual policy initiatives in schools and the media.

When language is subjected to the winds of nationalism, waves spread. The rise of Quebec nationalism in post-war Canada led to a spiral of laws and grassroots action in support of French. There was a shift from a religion-based (Roman Catholic) identity to a politically driven identity that became increasingly territorialized. French minorities in other parts of Canada began to adopt their own territorial distinctiveness, like Franco-Manitobain,

Fransaskois, Franco-terreneuvien, and Franco-Ontarien. The 'Ontarois', or Francophone community in provincial Ontario, have a Franco-Ontarian heritage flag, French-language media, and the protection of the French Language Services Act that designates a French-language provision in areas where a French-speaking population comprises 10 per cent of the community's total population. There are approximately half a million self-declared, mother tongue francophones in Ontario. The Act was criticized by anti-bilingualism opponents, with francophones being termed *cadavres encore chauds* ('warm corpses') with little chance of survival as a community in English-dominant Ontario. However, waves of Francophone immigrants from Haiti, Europe, and the Maghreb (north-west Africa) have increased the language's chances of a robust future.

The presence of multiple languages in the contemporary nation state poses critical issues for the policies of a state committed to the historical ideology of monoracialism and monolingualism. This is because language and identity is the political nexus in which an imagined community is created. Language nationalism is a driving force in the downgrading of minority languages and regional dialects. The result is uniformity and intolerance.

In 1916, following the deliberations of the *Kokugo Chosa Iinkai* (National Language Research Council) the government of Japan designated a metropolitan dialect of Japanese—the speech of the old, upper class from the Yamanote district of Tokyo—as *hyojungo*, the official standard language of Japan. There were similar declarations throughout the world (Denmark 1899, Germany 1901, Turkey 1929). The purpose was to promote one variety as the 'mainstream' language and facilitate modern nation state building. These efforts at language planning consigned other languages and dialects to minority status.

The pursuit of a standard language (*Gemeinsprache* or *langue commune*), which reached an apogee in 19th-century nationalist

ideologies, still resonates with the socio-psychological beliefs of some nations.

The replacement of Latin with vernacular standard languages depended crucially on the existence of a literary canon. In Denmark, philologists Rasmus Rask and Niels Matthias Petersen tried to formulate the notion of common Northern (linguistic) origins based on Old Norse literature. An imagined golden age of Danish literature that embodied the nation also invested the nationalist project with historicity, as seen in the Scandinavian romantic poetry of Adam Oehlenschläger, who composed the Danish national anthem 'Der er et yndigt land' ('There is a lovely country').

Language manifestos were *de rigueur* for governments at the turn of the century. There seemed to be a fear that society consisted of competing linguistic entities seeking cultural power and territory. This situation could threaten central authority. Language declarations were accompanied by means of language planning, like the package of laws passed by the Meiji government (1899), the 'Hokkaido Former Aborigines Protection Act' that declared the Ainu people and their language as a thing of the past not the future.

Language laws in Britain, France, Korea, Japan, and India were sometimes accompanied by explicit or implicit belief systems of ethnic superiority/inferiority, cultural capital, and uniqueness. The thrust of language nationalism continues today. The imposition of Putonghua (Mandarin) was stipulated in the Constitution of the People's Republic of China in 1982 and reiterated in the 2000 Law of the 'National Commonly used Language and Script'. This comprises the main tool of national unification and the integration of national minorities into Han and the prevailing political culture.

Following the seismic shift of the French Revolution in 1789, hostility to local languages accelerated, led by the Revolutionaries,

who viewed the regional patois as archaic and part of the *ancien régime*. Alsatian, Breton, Catalan, and Occitan became the target of what one French Catalan historian called *une inquisition laïque* (a secular inquisition) which waged war on local languages and identities. There have been attempts to forge a Northern Catalonia identity as part of a greater Països Catalans (Catalanic Community) including Catalonia, the Balearic Islands, La Franja ('The Strip' in Aragon), and Andorra, which is the only European sovereign state where Catalan is the national and only official language.

The political geography of late 18th-century France comprised regional communities. There was *francisation d'en bas* (the assertion of 'Frenchness' from below) as some local regions viewed neighbouring populations negatively. In France, proper allegiance was to the *pays* where the majority were illiterate and spoke *patois* in daily life: French was a second language.

The linguistic fallout from the French Revolution of 1789 had a profound impact on language ideology and planning in Europe. Within France, regions became *francisée*—a francization from Paris. The 1789 Revolutionaries asserted that French alone was the language of liberty. However, as the abbé Chambon expressed it in 1790:

> Country people do not know how to speak French... To destroy the Catalan language it would be necessary to destroy the sun, the cool of the evenings, the type of food, the quality of the water, in the end the whole person.

In the National Assembly's survey of a population of 28 million citizens at the end of the 18th century, only three million spoke French well, less than were able to read and write, and six million did not speak any French at all. Fraternal cosmopolitanism signalled the birth of the French nation state in the French Revolution of 1789. This quickly transformed into domestic,

xenophobic nationalism. The Napoleonic administrative machine became the gold standard for language suppression—the planned eradication of regional dialects and languages.

Can language be planned?

The questions posed in 1971 by the language planning specialists Joan Rubin and Björn Jernudd are valid fifty years later. Policy and reality rarely match well. There is implementation without planning. There is planning without implementation. Language policy can be straightforward but legislation requires different kinds of skills and various agencies. Witness the massive effort to revise the character system of written Chinese during the 20th century.

A language is many things and can be planned for many different purposes (see Box 6), such as language reform (Turkish), lexical modernization (e.g. Pilipino, Swedish), language purification (French), script and spelling standardization (Malaysian, Swahili), and language restoration/revival (Hebrew). Many governments now recognize that national sign languages are languages in their own right, regularly used by a significant number of people and their preferred language for participation in everyday life. How sign languages can be protected and promoted in the same way as other minority languages is the task of agencies like the Council of Europe's *Charter for Regional or Minority Languages* as well as national governments:

> The Government recognize that British Sign Language (BSL) is a language in its own right regularly used by a significant number of people. For an estimated 70,000 deaf people it is their preferred language for participation in everyday life. BSL is a visual-gestural language with its own vocabulary, grammar and syntax. (British Sign Language, House of Commons, 2003)

Box 6 Language planning

Languages of special status

National language (Dutch in the Netherlands, Arabic in the Lebanon)

Official language (Hebrew and Arabic in Israel, English and Hawaiian in Hawaii)

State language (Gujarati in India)

Provincial language (Québécois in Canada)

Auxiliary language (Esperanto, Old Slavonic in religious services)

Juridical language (Legal Latin in England)

Scientific language (Latin, Chinese, English)

Minority language (Polish in the Czech Republic)

Common language (English among members of the European Union)

Lingua franca (Russian in Central Asia, Tok Pisin in Papua New Guinea)

Lingua academica (French in African schools)

Languages for specific purposes

English for diplomacy, aviation, commerce, police inspectors in Nigeria

Russian for space exploration training in Vladivostok

Japanese for Indonesian nurses in Japan

Mandarin Chinese for tourism in France

Polish for health care professionals in Chicago

Korean for business purposes in Seoul

Chinook Jargon of traders and trappers in the Pacific Northwest

Symbolic-cultural recognition of a language must work in tandem with other practical measures such as laws, but these must be constantly visited and updated otherwise they fall into disuse or are simply ignored. Article 6 of the Italian constitution in 1947 stated that the republic would safeguard linguistic minorities by special provisions, but legal measures were not realized until the Italian parliament's implementation of Law 482 in 2001 on the protection of minorities, the *Norme in materia di tutela delle minoranze linguistiche storiche* (Normative framework on the protection of historic language minorities).

National and local governments can plan languages. Tourism has a massive impact on the language life of communities requiring a multilingual service industry of shops and hotels, public transport, printed/electronic information, interpreters, and translators. The simple policy of erecting multilingual street signs, directions, and notices in a community for overseas tourists is an assertion of such multilingual commitment (see Figure 5).



5. Train station sign in Japanese, English, Chinese, and Korean, Tokyo, Japan.

Language planning can mean providing access to prestigious national languages as well as supporting local mother tongues and indigenous languages: how to make information available in all community languages, how to create an awareness of need and expectations among public officials regarding community languages, and how to identify the relevant relations and barriers to communication in the workplace and public settings. All stakeholders—agencies and individuals—need to be involved when planning and shaping effective methods of implementation. This is necessary because governments—the main agents of language policy—are guided by their own limitations and special interests. Language planning is typically top-down, directed by the custodians of language.

We plan to do things with language and about language, to cultivate some languages and discourage others. Following the French Revolution, influential republican activist Henry Grégoire presented the National Convention of 1794 with a drastic policy to eradicate dialects (*éradication des patois et des langues régionales*) in France, the *Rapport sur la Nécessité et les Moyens d'anéantir les Patois et d'universaliser l'Usage de la Langue française* (*Report on the necessity and the means to annihilate the patois and to universalize the usage of the French language*). Languages were stigmatized in this policy. Corsican and Alsatian were described as *très-dégénérés* or very degenerate forms of Italian and German. Uniformization is still an instrument of nation building in contemporary France in the midst of a continuing debate about the future of French as an international language.

Soviet Marxist-Leninist theory in the early 20th century presented a wide-ranging model for the planning of language. Stalin, in his *Marxism and the National Colonial Question* (1975), predicted that ethnic minorities were inevitable—a product of capitalism—but would eventually transition to one unified community through socialism. This theory was visibly enacted in the minority language

policies of the Chinese Communist Party. From 1949 to 1957, a tolerant and hybrid policy, including bilingual education, was pursued in an effort to combat Han prejudice against minorities, and to promote subject-course literacy in community languages (Kazak, Korean, Mongolian, Tibetan, and Uygur), as well as to spread Chinese as a common language.

A radical policy change occurred during 1958–77 involving the 'Great Leap Forward' and the devastating impact of the 'Cultural Revolution'. To quicken the pace of ethnic unification, bilingual education was downgraded, and textbooks in minority communities were to be Chinese only and subject to approval, while bilingualism was dubbed 'bourgeois linguistics'. The pragmatism of Premier Deng Xiaoping (1904–1997) ushered in a third period from 1978 to the present. Pluralistic laws recognizing China's multilingualism and the value of bilingual education came into force, such as the Guangxi ruling in 1991 to permit schools with a substantial number of minority pupils to use both Chinese and the minority language as first languages.

The imposition of a monolingual literacy policy is often linked to the need for a common means of communication. In Tsarist Russia, it was estimated that in 1897 only one in five persons could sign their name, while by the time of World War I roughly 20 per cent in the rural areas could read or write. The multinational, multiethnic Tsarist Empire comprised a population that was 43 per cent ethnic Russian. The post-revolution debate revolved around which languages to develop and how to balance the legacy of Russian ethnocentrism with the demands of other languages. By October 1918, a language policy was formulated in which the vernacular language would be used in classrooms where upwards of twenty-five pupils in one age group used the same language. While this procedure worked for the Ukraine, where teachers and textbooks were rapidly produced, it was difficult in Central Asia and the Caucasus where different writing systems were in use, like Cyrillic, Roman, and Arabic. By the 1930s vernacular education

was widespread: school textbooks were published in twenty-five local languages in 1924, thirty-four in 1925, and forty-four in 1927.

Languages help construct borders. These borders can be national and geographical, religious and ethnic. Here is a Russian-speaking zone; there is a Tagalog-speaking zone. We can draw lines on the map. At the same time, linguistic communities straddle borders—like German in Europe or Malay in Asia. In this sense, societies become hybridized and multilingual. Languages help fashion transnational identities.

Language, therefore, operates in two different directions. It consolidates an idea, or breaks it up and 'deconstructs' it. On the one hand, language is a powerful element in solidifying a nation or community. It helps draw boundaries between people and nations. It pulls people and things together. It is a magnet that attracts power, political affiliation, and popular passion. This plays out in the making of policy and laws to impose one particular language in education, in the formation of an intellectual sphere like a 'national literature', and in the dissemination of this language for print, the mass media, the Internet. On the other hand, language creates a translocal sense. It ignores the claims of national borders and underlines the paradox of a so-called national language; as when liturgical and literary languages, such as Arabic and Sanskrit, span many regions and nations.

The Philippines story

Based on the UNESCO recommendation on the importance of mother tongue education in 1950, a successful experiment was conducted in Iloilo, the Philippines, to use the local Hiligaynon as the first language of instruction in schools. There followed other experiments leading to a proposal for a ten-year Vernacular Education Policy, from 1957, to introduce the eight major languages of the Philippines ('transitional bilingual education') in the first years of primary school, with transition to English as medium

of instruction beginning in year three. The policy was not implemented due to lack of resources, like pedagogical materials, and a lack of teacher training. Also, with the demand for the Filipino people's services around the world, vernacular languages were taking a back seat to English.

The search for a linguistic symbol of nationhood can be perilous. In Manila, in 1937, President Manuel Quezon proclaimed the 'national language based on the Tagalog dialect as the national language of the Philippines' (Executive Order 134). Tagalog is an indigenous language of the central Philippines and a member of the Austronesian language group. There are ten million speakers in the capital Manila, most of Luzon, and Mindoro, and it is increasingly used in the national media and literature, the first native writer to achieve prominence being Francisco Balagtas in the early 19th century.

Tagalog is the lingua franca of many urban communities in the Philippines and spoken as a first and second language by most Filipinos. Due to emigration, it is also spoken by approximately 500,000 in North America, particularly Hawaii and the West Coast of the United States. There are substantial numbers of speakers in Europe, the Middle East, Hong Kong, and Singapore.

In 1937, Tagalog became the linguistic base for Pilipino from which Tagalog is virtually indistinguishable. The national language (*wikang pambansa*) started to be taught from grade one in school, and in 1946 was designated as an official language with English and Spanish. Fury arose among other language groups against the 'fourth colonization' of the Philippines by the Tagalogs—Tagalog linguistic imperialism. A compromise was reached in the 1973 Constitution, which stated:

(i) The Constitution shall be officially promulgated in English and in Pilipino, and translated into each dialect spoken by

over 50,000 people, and in Spanish and Arabic. In case of conflict, the English text shall prevail.

(ii) The National Assembly shall take steps towards the development and formal adoption of a common national language to be called Filipino.

(iii) Unless otherwise provided by law, English and Pilipino shall be the official languages.

This meant that the national language is Filipino (with an F) while Filipino (or Pilipino) is the official language together with English.

What's in a name? National and official languages

Geographical names are a visible manifestation of multilingualism and political history. In India, Madras State became 'Tamil Nadu' (1969), and Frobisher Bay changed to 'Iqaluit' (1987) in Canada. The labelling of geographical space is a long-established way to promote languages. Local communities rename streets and parks, signposts and maps. They ponder the naming of rivers and seas and the newly populated places—like in the Indonesian *transmigrasi* (transmigration) rainforest. The use of toponyms, like the state names 'Parána' and 'Sergipe' in Brazil echo their indigenous past (Guarani and Tupi languages respectively). Similarly, 'Roraima' (thundering mountain) was renamed in the Yanomami language from the Portuguese 'Rio Branco' (white river). This contrasts with the Rio de Janerio and Mato Grosso do Sul that derive from colonial Portuguese. Renaming is a form of decolonization.

Prioritizing one variety—making it an official or national language—raises questions about the status of regional or ethnic languages. In Singapore, by the early 20th century, Bazaar Malay served as the interethnic lingua franca while a majority, linguistically mixed Chinese population employed Hokkien as the

lingua franca. Prime Minister Lee Kuan Yew (1923–2015) became the main architect of an economic revolution with a unique linguistic character. Trade and industry ('our only hope') would fire the economy and English would be the bellows—the working language of all. For the various ethnic communities the solution was bilingualism. Mandarin, Malay, and Tamil serve as the mother tongues of their respective communities. A two-pronged language shift has taken place whereby Mandarin is replacing the former Chinese dialects like Hokkien, Cantonese, and Teochew, with English established as the medium of school education, the media, and business.

The fixing of a dominant language in a multilingual community or region is a secularizing process that needs laws and regulations. The promotion of Spanish was carried out successfully through the law 'Llei d'Us i Ensenyament del Valencia' (1983), which set in motion *castellanizacion* (the Spanish language replacing local languages) in the Autonomous Community of Valencia, Spain. Whereas in some countries (e.g. Indonesia, China) a powerful ethnic group has been able to impose a common language upon a territory of complex ethnic composition, this does not work for other places, such as India. Following independence in 1947 the new government looked for means to unify the country. A common language would serve this goal. Gandhi proposed 'Hindustani' as a pluricentric compromise, a merger of Hindi and Urdu. In Gandhi's vision, a reliable national language for India had first to fulfil requirements. It should be:

- easy for government and bureaucrats to learn
- able to serve as a medium of religious, economic, and political discourse throughout India
- spoken by most of the people of India
- easy for all people, of any background, to learn
- chosen so that considerations of temporary or passing interests should not count.

In *India of My Dreams* (1947), Gandhi held that no other language than Hindustani could fulfil all these requirements, and that 'to think that English can become our national language is a sign of weakness and betrays ignorance'. Gandhi's proposal was difficult. Partition with Pakistan in 1947 and the mass emigration of Muslims led Hindu leaders to set aside the need for linguistic détente with Muslims. They chose Hindi, with English as another official language. English continued to serve as a nationwide lingua franca (Official Language Act, 1963), a language of social status, the language of media and higher education, and a common language of the elites.

Chapter 7
Identity and culture

Language identity and identification

Language and culture are not a one-to-one equation. Multilingual (bilingual) does not mean multicultural (bicultural), nor do cultural beliefs and awareness automatically imply language ability. A woman called Lily can self-identify and function as culturally Bulgarian (third generation) in her Greek hometown, but she is mostly unable to speak or read Bulgarian. A male office worker called Aran is a native speaker of Thai, raised in a Thai-speaking home in Milan. He is culturally Italian, in his communication style, social values, lifestyle, education, friendships, and football team. Ethnicity is no longer a sacred text. A person might view identity not as an essential(ist) absolute, but rather as a cultural genre. Knowing another language need not be an automatic assertion of ethnic loyalty, but instead cultural capital, an expression of personal hybridity.

An ethnicity that is lightly worn, more layered, complex, and ambiguous is what we might call 'metroethnicity'. This post-ethnic ethnicity is driven by cultural demands rather than traditional ethnic orthodoxy. You might maintain or learn your minority language because it's 'cool' and urbane—cultural capital, rather than ethnic allegiance. Cool is not fashion or popularity. It is an attitude, collective energy, and a possibility, an ability to see

the lightness of language. The revival of interest in the Irish language in urban Ireland may be due as much to the global interest and appropriation of Irish culture (popular music, dance, literature, tourism, etc.) as to language planning by the Irish government.

Language and culture are asymmetrical. Their association is contingent but not necessary. What happens when a learner finds acculturation—the cultural payload that comes with the language—too heavy, cultural things that seem unacceptable or troublesome? When acquiring another language we access a corresponding culture, but this can make personal and social demands. Islam pressed the unity of language and religion on the Maghreb, and until the late 20th century Berber and Arabic languages and cultures were in conflict. Berber translations of the Qur'ān were condemned as transgressions of the unity of the sacred book and classical Arabic.

The disjunction of language and culture has been observed in studies of Arabic–French bilinguals in Tunisia. There are 'bicultural bilinguals' who can interact effectively with speakers of either language, possessing cultural awareness and appropriate skills. This contrasts with 'monocultural bilinguals', such as university students of foreign languages who rarely go outside their cultural sphere. 'Bicultural monolinguals' may be the children of immigrants whose parents no longer use their first language/mother tongue but who maintain some beliefs, customs, and religious practices. These are transmitted in the home and immigrant community.

The asymmetry of language and culture, the problem of cultural expectations, is illustrated by a study of Turkish girls from traditional villages who grew up in Sweden. The sociolinguist Christina Bratt Paulson writes, 'It is difficult to see how these girls can internalize both their fathers' value system of women and that of Swedish society. In fact, they can't, and that situation casts

serious doubts on the many glib statements of biculturalism as one objective of bilingual education.'

Identity poses no problems for some bilinguals. Some identify language, distinctly, with one ethnic or cultural group. Many bilinguals in Wales see themselves as Welsh first, possibly British next, but not English. Some immigrants drop the identity of their native country and identify with the new home country, while some others develop a new identity, becoming culturally hyphenated, such as Asian-American and Italian-Australian. Identity crises and conflicts come and go. Identities are not static. They change with life changes, and varying experiences and situations.

Language in cultural theory

In the Santiago Bernabéu football stadium, the home of Real Madrid football club, the language is Spanish. In Camp Nou, FC Barcelona supporters sing and shout in Catalan, and the flags and signs are in Catalan, a language that evolved in the eastern Pyrenees in the 9th century. In the 21st century we see the separatist movements in Catalonia and Quebec linking up with language identities. In the 20th century, the independence movement in Ireland, to free Ireland from the rule of Britain, emphasized the symbolic importance of language: the *Athbheochan na Gaeilge* (Gaelic revival). Linguist and first president of Ireland Douglas Hyde's key lecture in 1892 was entitled 'The Necessity for De-Anglicising Ireland'. Likewise, the split between India and Pakistan and then Bangladesh in the 1940s was deeply connected to languages serving as symbols of identity.

Everyone is part of a shared language relation. Language identity is both essential and existential. The theory of language (Plato, Descartes, Chomsky) that it is a fixed and identifiable set of principles shared by all persons embodies a core feature of

cosmopolitan theory. It serves as an elegant statement of the European Enlightenment. The solid-state architecture of human language is our evolutionary heritage. Meanwhile, what we call 'languages' (e.g. 'Swedish' or 'Arabic') are clusters of social convention, in time and place. They are existential objects that are written, spoken, signed, subject to change, and subject to life and death. This is what the French linguist Antoine Meillet (1866–1936) called 'language as a social fact'. Here, the milieu of transcultural interactions forms the substance from which 'languages' emerge. 'Language' always compels our attention when we are formulating identity. As cultural theorist Stuart Hall (1932–2014) wrote in *The Question of Cultural Identity*:

> There are people who belong to more than one world, speak more than one language (literally, metaphorically), inhabit more than one identity, have more than one home; who have learned to negotiate and translate between cultures, and who, because they are irrevocably the product of several interlocking histories and cultures, have learned to live with, and indeed to speak from, *difference*. They speak from the in-between of different cultures, always unsettling the assumptions of one culture from the perspective of the other, and thus finding ways of being both the same and different from the others amongst whom they live.... They represent new kinds of identities.

A multicultural society has interlocking layers and dimensions. A new paradigm of postmodern society is emerging that goes beyond the celebration of micro-ethnicities, of mere 'difference', but instead demonstrates a growing awareness of hybridity, lifestyle heterogeneity, and cultural crossing. It is an ancient existential aesthetic in which 'to be' means 'to choose freely'. Education is crucial to the making of a new model since the purpose of much compulsory education has traditionally been to patrol the boundaries of social and linguistic conformity upon which the state depends for its continuity. Multilingualism is freedom.

Ethnolect and metroethnicity

The distinctive use of language by members of an ethnic group is called an 'ethnolect'. We know that children of migrants, like Somalis in Manchester or Vietnamese in Los Angeles, will commonly adopt the speech of majority society. There is, however, a cluster of speech styles—pronunciation, vocabulary, and grammar—within a community that is marked off from another group. African American English or Irish English in England can be considered ethnolects. We find ethnolects among Koreans in Osaka, Latinos and Irish Americans in New York, Italians in Melbourne, or Japanese in Toronto.

How is an ethnolect formed? In-group activities, association, and loyalty or allegiance influence it; along the boundary a group sets off from another group, retaining a memory of ancestral migration. An ethnolect is therefore a zone of resources with a mix of standard/non-standard forms. Ethnolects then often become converted into a stereotype of speech and behaviour among ethnic minorities.

This stylized variant is the stuff of stage, film, and comedy. The Irish playwright John Millington Synge (1871–1909) gave an ironic rendition of the stereotype in *The Playboy of the Western World* (1907). The characters were lower-class, satirical, and immoral, speaking in Irish English ('Hiberno-Irish')—the Irish dialect of English. The play portrayed 'stage Irish'—a fake representation of Irish English speech—and provoked rioting by outraged nationalists (the 'Playboy Riots') in Dublin and New York.

Ethnolect parody of Greek-Australian speech caused a sensation in Australia in the 1980s in musical comedies and sitcoms like *Wog Boy* and *Acropolis Now*, by non-Anglo actors. Stereotypical Australian English (a composite of many dialect types) was parodied in film and TV from *On Our Selection* (1920) to *Crocodile Dundee* (1985). A minority dialect can be a way for

people to cultivate a niche identity for the children of migrants in a society that embraces multiculturalism. An ethnolect can thus become a cool addition to life in a multicultural society—a kind of 'metroethnicity' that is urbane and ambiguous.

Our conversations in various situations are acts of identity. An ethnolect is a kind of linguistic uniqueness related to national or ethnic identity, and a common impression of an ethnolect is not difficulty to construct. In a study of speakers' awareness of 'Irishness', people in the city of Cork were asked to list specific features they considered unique about 'Irish English':

Vocabulary
gas, meas, fella, girlin, dhera, amadán, gossoons, fair-enough, sca, grand, eejit ...

Greetings
How's she cutting? How's the craic? How's the form? How's the going?

Grammar
I'm after eating my dinner. I'm after my work.
I do be doing that regularly
Do you know what I mean, like?
Tis fair bad. Tis queer bad

(Adapted from Shimada Tamami, *English in Ireland: Beyond Similarities*)

The ecology of the self

We inherit the speech of our surroundings as well as attitudes and beliefs about language. We take up a standard language, a regional dialect, a class dialect, and the language of family, education, and work situations. Within this rich ecology, in different places and with various people we develop our own way of speaking. They are structures that shape our speech and attitudes. They represent what the French sociologist Pierre Bourdieu (1930–2002) termed

our 'habitus', shaping our present and future. They can also be seen as resources that shape our social position. They are cultural acquisitions that we inherit over time. Bourdieu called this 'cultural capital', like when we learn how to speak appropriately in work situations, as an electrician, a nurse in a hospital, or a police officer. Each type of knowledge is a bundle of knowledge and skills. Language is part of our cultural capital. We might come to value one accent—a prestigious upper class one—over another because one has more positive symbolic capital than the other.

In Bourdieu's theory, the linguistic market is never a free market, but rather it is predetermined or 'fixed'. One dialect, like 'BBC English', might be considered more favourable currency than another. The situation is complicated because the notion of the transmission of culture—the habitus—is deterministic. There is little room for individual agency. Schools are classic examples of how education as a cultural resource can resocialize and empower disadvantaged classes. We can, without too much difficulty, modify an accent—to our advantage—when necessary. We switch language styles just for that reason. In one situation, one form of speech has higher linguistic currency than another. A schoolgirl's 'correct' style of speech, during an interview in the principal's office, is unsuitable in the playground where only cool school slang reigns.

Belonging, ethnicity, and shifting identities

The mixed use of languages has a very long history and occurs in secular and religious texts. The Book of Daniel in the Hebrew Bible was written in two languages: chapters 1:1–2:4a and 8–12 in Hebrew, 2:4b–7 in Aramaic. The issue of lexical borrowing (Syriac, Aramaic, Hebrew) in the Qur'ān has been a focus of discussion, and debate, by Muslim linguists. Shibboleths—words or sounds that a person is unable to pronounce correctly—were used throughout history as a means of detecting foreigners. During the Pacific War, American sentries invented the word

'lollapalooza' on the assumption that Japanese posing as friendly soldiers would be unable to pronounce the letter /r/. In the anti-Tamil pogrom of 1983, Sri Lankan Sinhalese youths who boarded buses executed Tamil passengers unable to pronounce the word *bhaldhiya* (bucket) in Sinhalese. Tamils would say *vaaliya* or *baaliya*.

Our identification with a social group gives rise to a sense of belongingness. A social group within a larger system seems to possess a quality of oneness (Latin *idem* 'sameness', 'likeness'). Cultural or linguistic characteristics are the identificational dimension of culture. As 'race' and 'national culture' were increasingly discredited concepts after World War II, a partial replacement came with the uncontroversial term 'ethnicity' whose derivation, in fact (Greek *ethnos*), had undesirable connotations, 'neither Gentile nor Israelite'. 'Heathen' and 'heathenic' are variants of the term. The flexibility of the term was such that it could be applied to a wide range of immigrant groups, for example Polish, Chinese, and East European Jews in North America, but also to non-immigrant groups such as Native Americans.

The German sociologist Max Weber talked about ethnicity as an artificial or social construct. We construct ethnicity. We deconstruct it. We acquire a new identity, then replace it with another. Now you are single, now you are married, now single again. Now you are a high school punk with sagging pants, now you are suited up and work for a travel agency. Last year you were Algerian, religious, a street musician, an immigrant, now you are a schoolteacher, non-religious, French in a mixed-language household, still immigrant, but you have become a local politician. The same person but different. Ethnicity is always being 'negotiated'. It is a kind of internal identification of the continuity of the self. It is not merely the social self that changes.

Ethnic classification is long-lived, but there is also discussion about 'transcending ethnicity' or 'after identity'. Dynamic

population movements of sojourners, ex-colonials, and immigrants, a cultural shift towards polyethnic and multicultural states affecting language, civic membership, education, etc., have led to a gradual deconstruction of the notion of ethnicity. Italian sociologist Alberto Melucci (1943–2001) not only pointed out that all ethnic communities are divided, but insisted that ethnicity itself is an optional identity, often overshadowed by other (gender, class, regional) identities.

The changing status of Irish language and ethnicity in post-war urban England is another interesting example of the subtle transition from social stigma to another kind of identification. The Irish accent was comic in English media and society; immigrant Irish were stereotyped as unskilled, uneducated, the building industry working class, living in the urban industrial ghettos of England. Over the decades, social attitudes to Irish culture and speech shifted. It's cool to be Irish and everyone in England seems to have an Irish ancestor. The heroes are everywhere and Irish music is world music—traditional and contemporary. It is admired, popular, and quintessentially itself.

Culture

We like 'our' culture to be well defined and reified, pointing to a clear past, a timeless tradition, a recognizable history that the nation can agree upon. It is not so simple. There are disputes over what constitutes a national flag, an anthem, the national language. Englishness no longer serves as equivalent to Britishness since 'Britain' involves a complex citizenship shared and contrastive with other identities (Scottish, Welsh, and Northern Irish). The historian Benedict Anderson (1936–2015) defined the nation as an 'imagined political community', suggesting a more complex concept than the idea that a nation is a named community of history and culture with a well-defined territory and a unified economy, education, and legal system.

Language learning is often thought to be a matter of instrumentality, having practical implications—for employment, for educational attainment. It may also be a heritage language—getting back to one's 'roots'. A person may have a partner who speaks the language. There is some evidence that language learners who are integratively motivated—oriented to people and culture—are more successful than the instrumentally motivated. This 'identification' involves emotional ties to language. Every decision to speak another language is, therefore, disruptive of identity. It challenges ideas about belonging, nation, and nationality. It may involve emotional ties that overwhelm ethnicity or ethnic boundaries. A study of the language ideologies of salsa dancers in Germany by Britta Schneider (Box 7) hints at the discourse of belonging through identification with an 'Other' language community.

Box 7 German salsa dancers in Frankfurt

Das macht mich immer fröhlich
wenn ich Spanisch sprechen kann
das find ich total klasse
ich weiss auch nich,
ja, es is schwer zu sagen, was es eigentlich is
doch so'n bisschen
ja wirklich, dieses aus der eigenen Rolle
der unterkuhlten Mitteleuropäerin bisschen aus..zu..dingsen

It always makes me happy
when I can speak Spanish, absolutely,
I find it absolutely thrilling
I don't know
yes, it is difficult to say, what it actually is
but a little bit
yes, really, this out-of-the-town role
of the frosty middle European a little bit, to break out of it.

Britta Schneider

Language and culture

The moment you step outside one language and enter the transnational moment of another one, it calls upon complex social ideologies about belonging and loyalty, freedom and personal desire. Though a critic of the European colonial enterprise and an avid language learner, the philosopher Johann Gottfried von Herder (1704–1803) challenged the European Enlightenment notion of reality as universal and always available to rational investigation. Herder's view was that 'each nation thinks in the manner that he speaks' and that in a particular language there dwelt 'an entire world of tradition, history, religion, principles of existence, its whole heart and soul'. His radical attack was three pronged: the European Enlightenment ideal of universal law is flawed, societies are unique and can only understand themselves, and difference is natural and the universal is contrary to human nature.

In this conception, language is an unchanging substance; different societies, peoples, and races are their own life worlds, as in Herder's axiom, 'Whom nature separated by language, customs, character let no man artificially join together by chemistry.' Multilingual or 'polyglot' societies were deemed monsters, chemical creations contrary to nature. The emerging ideal of the *volkgeist*—the unchanging spirit of the people—provided an intellectual springboard for 20th-century ethnic-based nationalism. In this view, people never really understand each other because each language is a cultural black box. 'Relativism', the notion that truths are different according to each culture, that we cannot know anything for certain, was also formulated by the Scottish philosopher David Hume (1711–1776).

Philosophic and political relativism link up with a view that thinking and language are so closely connected that a person's view of the world is shaped, even determined, by the structure of a language and culture. A neo-Herderian view was proposed by the

American linguist Benjamin Lee Whorf (1897–1941), namely that 'we dissect nature along the lines laid down by our native languages'. A weak or less strongly deterministic view seems commonsensical at one level: language is a medium of culture and culture itself. Undoubtedly, the range of fish vocabulary in a Japanese *sushi* (raw seafood cuisine) restaurant in Kyoto is greater than in a fish and chip shop in Leeds.

There are flaws in Herder–Whorf relativism. It is perfectly possible for a speaker of language A to distinguish material and conceptual distinctions in language B even when language A's vocabulary lacks them. Even if a speaker of Greenlandic has multiple words for different types of snow, a speaker of Spanish or Romanian—lacking single words for the same things—is sensitive to differences indicating fine powdery snow, heavy-wet snow, etc. Each language is subject to wide internal variation and is environmentally sensitive. One language cannot always express all the thoughts and feelings that we really have.

How does language control our thinking or bring about changes in personality and character? Has socially responsible usage (e.g. non-sexist language) brought about changes in people's behaviour? It is difficult to say how cultural features like colour and kinship are anchored in linguistic systems. Everyone in the world has the same cognitive system that provides the colour spectrum. Cultures merely fashion the linguistic system differently. The debate drives us to overgeneralization and contradiction: Hungarians and Germans, Japanese and Koreans, have similar language systems but different cultures.

A weak view of linguistic relativism is that language influences our view of the world. The culture of a place is reflected in its language. Look at the culture of a people and you will be able to see its values and history. This is the opposite of the Whorfian view. There is a tenuous and unstable relation between language and culture. It may be good to know the fact that a tortilla in

Mexico is unleavened bread and in other countries an omelette but it does not affect my understanding of my use of Spanish. I may be uninterested in French literature and politics and not read the news in French, but this does not hinder me from working as a chef, in French, in a restaurant in Marseilles. We know and work with the parts of culture that we want to know.

Identity: being something, someone

Language serves as a link between ethnocultural transmission across generations. Language is expressive of ethnocultural knowing and doing. It is the real thing, a corporeal essence that allows a person to share bodily in a cultural continuity as an insider. People turn to the learning of languages for a wide range of reasons, only one of them being the maintenance of some kind of 'identity'. Language is also linked to social institutions like the family, and representations of the self in a community. Language is linked to our beliefs and understandings, aesthetics, moral values, and the way in which we 'know'—an epistemology.

In this moving, cosmopolitan world, there are transnational people, mixed ethnic people, and people with transcultural experience who have accumulated knowledge of other places and cultures, who understand and 'live' cultural difference. These people inhabit more than one culture, more than one identity. A crucial factor in the maintenance of a language is visits to the homeland. With a homeland visit, romantic ideas about language can be clarified, along with perceptions of identity and belonging. As Mari, a Japanese-American student, wrote:

> Back in California, I always counted myself as Japanese and liked to be knowledgeable about Japan. Then I went for a summer course in Kyoto. I tried to talk to people and I stayed with my mother's relatives. It was then I realized I wasn't Japanese. But then I ask myself if there really is such a thing as being Japanese or being American? I mean what does 'being something' really mean?

Chapter 8
Lingua franca, hybrids, and constructed languages

International language and education

Multilingualism is not a modern phenomenon. In Spanish colonial Colombia, private mission schools taught Latin and Greek and French-speaking children of the elite were sent to Europe. The Colombian education law of 1979 introduced English in Grades 6–7.

The use of English as a medium of instruction (EMI) for academic subjects in higher education, as well as in secondary and even primary schools, continues to grow; a global phenomenon with educational implications. English is a global skill. EMI for some subjects—for example, science and mathematics—is particularly welcomed by parents. The policy involves robust frameworks for language proficiency and support for teachers to prepare for implementation. There is varying opinion about the spread of a *lingua academia* in education, in countries where English is not the first language of the majority of the population. In Italy, where 99 per cent of teaching staff are Italian nationals, concern has been raised whether English-only university instruction violates the Italian constitution (Article 33) which provides students with free access to knowledge.

In US high schools, Spanish is the most commonly taught language, while Native American languages are sometimes offered (Cherokee

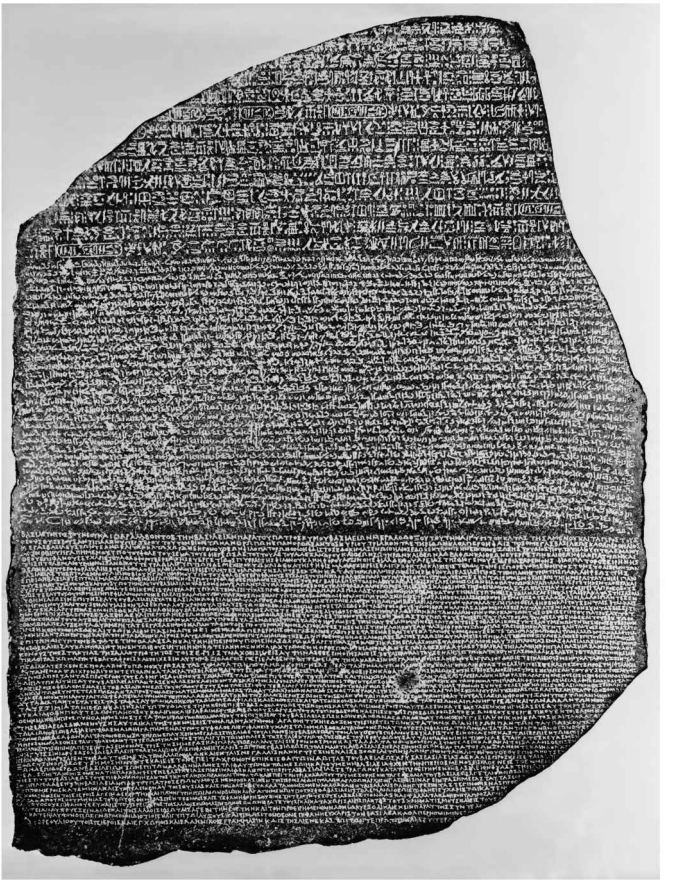
in Oklahoma and North Carolina). Spanish, French, German, and Italian are the flagship languages at university, but the United States is undergoing a diversification of interest with the uptake of LCTLs (less commonly taught languages) such as Chinese, Arabic, and Japanese. American Sign Language is the fourth most popular language course in American colleges.

In most European schools, it is obligatory to learn two foreign languages for at least one year during compulsory education. The first language is introduced in primary school between six and nine years old, and the second foreign language in middle school. English is the most-taught foreign language in nearly all countries. The second is German, popular in central and eastern European countries, then French, especially in southern Europe. Spanish is taught, especially at the secondary level. Russian is taught in Latvia and Lithuania, which have Russian-speaking communities.

At the upper levels of secondary schools, Latin and ancient Greek are offered in 50 per cent of all European countries. In some countries, such as Sweden and Finland, schools are free to decide when to introduce the first foreign language as a compulsory subject. In Cyprus, pupils start English as a compulsory subject from the age of six. In Spain and the German-speaking community in Belgium, pupils start learning a foreign language during pre-primary education, as early as the age of three, whereas in England and Wales children start learning a foreign language at the age of eleven when they begin secondary education. In Europe, 93 per cent of fifteen-year-old schoolchildren speak the language of instruction at home.

Ancient lingua franca

Now housed in the British Museum in London, the Rosetta Stone is convincing evidence of ancient multilingualism (see Figure 6). On this 112 cm black stone are written three parallel scripts. Knowledge of the ancient Egyptians' language was lost until the



6. The Rosetta Stone.

discovery of the stone in 1799 by Napoleon's army in Rashid (Rosetta), outside Alexandria. Hieroglyphic writing was the formal script of the ancient Egyptians. The priestly class used it, demotic being the secular version used in later Egyptian history. Greek was the language of administration and social and cultural life. The known Greek text at the bottom helped decipher the

middle one which was written in demotic script, and at the top in hieroglyphs. The text was a decree issued by a council of temple priests in 196 BC, on behalf of King Ptolemy V, to honour his service to Egypt.

Then as now, in nation, region, and city, one language displaces another in range and influence. Akkadian (Babylonian) replaced Sumerian, Arabic superseded Egyptian, and, in the 7th century, the so-called Italic languages of Latino-Faliscan and Osco-Umbrian were submerged into Latin which then evolved into the Romance languages, i.e. dialects of Latin. Sumerian culture thrived in the Mesopotamian Valley in the 4th millennium BC and from there derived a writing system, a progenitor of Egyptian hieroglyphs. Following the conquest of Sumeria and the adoption of Akkadian, the sociolinguistic situation was bilingual and diglossic, two languages for different purposes: Akkadian for law and administration and Sumer for religion.

The Code of Hammurabi was written in the daily language of Babylon, Akkadian. Hammurabi (*c.*1810–1750 BC), the sixth king of the First Babylonian Empire, initiated language reforms to make Akkadian the pre-eminent lingua franca of antiquity; inscriptions have been found on stone, silver, and clay artefacts. In the Bible, King David's scribe was the Babylonian Shavsha. The northern dialect of Babylonian was Assyrian, similar to Hebrew and Phoenician. It rose and declined in the ancient Near East to be replaced by Aramaic.

Aramaic, a Semitic language, became the medium of the conquering Assyrians, the lingua franca of the Persian Empire among languages such as Egyptian, Hebrew, Babylonian, Assyrian, Phoenician, Lydian, Armenian, and Median. The Jews spoke Aramaic and it was the medium of Jewish liturgy and scholarship. Jesus of Nazareth, with the Aramaic/Hebrew name 'Yeshua' ('to rescue, to deliver'), spoke Galilean Aramaic, probably Greek, and was literate in Hebrew. The Christian Gospels were

written in Greek but Jesus' original Aramaic speech surfaces on occasion, as in the Gospel of Mark 5: 41, 'And taking the hand of the child, he said to her, "Talitha kum"', which translates as, 'Little girl, I say to you, get up'.

Latin was the official language of the Roman Empire but employed mainly by the elite. The sign over the cross at the crucifixion of Jesus of Nazareth was in the three international languages of the place and time: Aramaic, Latin, and Greek. The powerful and technically superior Aramaic alphabet, developed from the 10th century BC, was the ancestral script of Hebrew, Arabic, and the western dialect of Aramaic, Syriac. The three important languages in the early Christian era were Latin, Greek, and Syriac (still employed by Syrian Christians as a liturgical language). Contemporary Aramaic is used today by the Assyrian people in the Mashriq territories of the Arab world, east of Egypt.

Universal languages and hybrids

There is one universal language. It is called 'human language' and it is the most perfect expression of human nature. Birds fly, fish swim, people speak. Every person is gifted this system of knowledge. Human language is intact and well-functioning and follows a predictable path of development from early childhood. Whether raised in a quiet family or a noisy one, children 'grow' the same grammatical constructions and sounds.

The core system of knowledge underlying 'human language' allows us to generate millions of different sentences in many language guises. It is rich and complex, full of unlimited potential. Native speakers internalize this language. It is individual, and intuitive, unsurprisingly termed 'I-language' by the American linguist Noam Chomsky. Human language has infinite scope though with finite means. With human language we can express more or less the same ideas in the dialects of Texas and Yorkshire, or Ukrainian and Vietnamese. The differences are

social and can be traced by pointing to a map: the geographical territories of human language. These are the public forms of human language, its external life ('E-language'). Throughout history, as languages come into contact, people have coped with difference in various ways.

Macaronic (hybrid) texts were common in medieval European literature and song. The composer Carl Orff's cantata *Carmina Burana* (1935) was set to twenty-four medieval poems in Latin, German, and Old Provençal. Christmas carols often used parallel languages, like the macaronic *In Dulce Jubilo*, by Dominican mystic Heinrich Seuse (1280–1365): Latin (italicized) and German.

> *In dulci jubilo*
> Nun singet und seid froh!
> Unsers Herzens Wonne
> Leit *in praesepio;*
> Und leuchtet wie die Sonne
> *Matris in gremio.*
> *Alpha es et O!*
>
> (In sweet jubilation | Now sing and be joyful! Our hearts' consolation | lies in the manger | Shining like the sun | in his mother's lap. You are the alpha and omega!)

A simple form of language used for limited and mostly spoken communication between people is a 'pidgin'. A pidgin is a unique and systematic variety of language (re)production which occurs in multilingual situations: between speakers of different codes when in contact with each other in a community. A pidgin is the temporary, makeshift language of a community. It is a *mischsprache* or mixed language. When the *mischsprache* stabilizes, i.e. gains a stable lexico-vocabulary, it becomes mainstream. When a pidgin turns into a mother tongue it becomes a 'creole', like Tok Pisin (New Guinea). The community of languages-in-contact may be marginalized with low social prestige, like *Shelta*, the speech of the travelling people (Ireland), or they may have status. There are

pidgins like English-based Krio in Sierra Leone and Gulf Pidgin Arabic used between Arabic speakers and foreign workers in the Gulf States.

Mixed language is common in literature throughout the world. Wole Soyinka (1934–), the Nigerian playwright and poet, deployed mixed text, alternating within a spectrum of linguistic varieties—English, Yoruba, and non-standard West African pidgin English. English is a continuum in Nigeria from Nigerian Pidgin English, the 'basilect' or informal variety that greatly diverges from the standard form, to the 'acrolect' Nigerian Standard English which is the widely understood rhetorical norm of the community standard forms. 'Mesolects' are those varieties that stand somewhere between the two.

In colonial-era households, like French-occupied Vietnam, house pidgins were used for communication. *Tây Bồi* (literally 'French [of] male servants') was a Vietnamese pidgin French spoken by (mostly male) servants as in,

Vietnamese Pidgin French	*Moi compris toi parler*
[Standard French	*J'ai compris ce que tu as dit*]
[English translation	*I understand what you said*]

French pidgins were replaced by 'Saigon Pidgin' and other mixed languages during America's Vietnam war. Of the roughly 800 US military garrisons around the world there are numerous installations in Asia where language mixing occurs between military personnel and neighbourhood workers. Here is an interview (2002) with a retired *shoshanbo* (shoe-shine boy), around seventy years of age, working at a train station in downtown Fukuoka, Japan:

JM: Interviewer; Sh: Shoe-shine boy (Age: 70s). (Pidgin in italics.)
JM: Mo nagai desu ka? Kutsumigaki
[You've been shining shoes a long time?]

Sh: *Watashi? Shoshanbo sanjunen. Fukuoka fai ia. Okinawa te' ia. Tokyo suree ia. You America?*
[Me? Shoe-shine boy for 30 years. Fukuoka five years, Okinawa ten years, Tokyo three years. Are you American?]
JM: No
Sh: *Where you fra'?*
[Where are you from?]
JM: Yoroppa
[Europe]
Sh: *You marry?*
[Are you married?]
JM: Yes
Sh: *'ow many chilen?*
[How many children do you have?]
JM: Two. Eigo jozu desu ne. Doko de Eigo oboemashita ka?
[You speak good English. Where did you learn English?]
Sh: *Beigun kichi. Ima Fukuoka eepo. I waak long time. My daughter marry American. Beigun kichi heitai san you know? He kam to me say I wan marry daughter. I say no, no, no. He say 'aishiteru' I say 'kaere!' My daughter marry. Have fowaa gaal... Minna eburiwan San Francisco. Chonan to watashi go San Francisco.*
[The American military base. Now Fukuoka airport. I worked a long time. My daughter married an American. American military base soldier... You know? He came to me, said 'I want to marry your daughter'. I said no, no no. He said 'I love her' I said, 'Get lost!' My daughter got married. Has four girls. My eldest son and I went to San Francisco.]
JM: Musume san ga shiawasedesuka?
[Is your daughter happy?]
Sh: *Eee. Happy happy. Machi manee. Only watashi bimbo.*
[Yeah! Very happy! She has lots of money. Only I am poor.]

The impact of multilingualism in the metropolis, especially resulting from immigration, is seen in new language contact varieties. In England, as traditional urban dialects like London

Box 8 Cool conversations

[Telephone] Sue to Kimi: Hi Kimi. Yeah. Last night was nang. Yeah. So like Keith wants to link wi me at Camden Lock. Today! And I'm like, Keith! Oh my days! He thinks he's so.... Yeah. Anyway, it's myth. Can't go. I'm with the fam this afternoon. Jeez. Keith's so deep. So, you know, I told Jess and she said, yer know, Keith's always beggin'. So anyway, I'm like... ok... cool... So I'm just chillin' today.

[Kitchen] Sue to Dad: Oh, hello, dad. Er, dad, do you think you could you tell mum when she comes back that I'm home for dinner tonight, after all? Thanks. Sorry about the mix-up.

nang = good, cool, Australian slang
link = meet up, rendezvous
oh my days = oh my goodness
deep = rude, bad
myth = not possible
begging = talking nonsense

'Cockney' start to disappear, cool, new varieties of English (sociolects) are emerging. MYE (Multicultural Youth English) is used by some young people, especially in London, and there are local varieties of MYE in urban centres, like Manchester and Liverpool. Spearheading language change is the cultural influence of hip-hop, rap, faux West Coast American speech, international youth slang, as well as elements of south-eastern English, Caribbean creoles. These new forms of speech are transmitted along social networks (Box 8).

Constructed languages and Esperanto

One response to the fact of multiple languages in the world has been the making of consciously devised languages. A constructed language has several uses, primarily as a means of international

communication. It is nationally neutral, a non-ethnic language with a non-territorial speech community. An invented language is 'artificial', but all languages are artificial in the sense that they are produced by people in society. The French writer and humanist François Rabelais (1483–1553) held that: 'C'est abus de dire que nous avons une langue naturelle; les langues sont par institution arbitraires et conventions des peuples' ('It's an abuse to say that we have a natural language; languages are, by institution, arbitrary, people's conventions').

A constructed language must have a regular grammar, with no exceptions, and a stable core that generates new words in a logical way. The possibility of a constructed language, which he called *Ars Signorum*, was considered by scholar George Dalgano of Aberdeen in 1661. Polymath John Wilkins philosophized on the design of a 'completely unambiguous universal language' to replace Latin, in 1668. Volapük was invented by German Johann Schleyer, in 1880, to further the cause of universal brotherhood and world trade. Initially it attracted many adherents. The American Philosophical Society appointed Benjamin Franklin to study its merits but rejected Volapük for its complicated grammatical structure. Neo-Latin languages followed such as Mundolingua (1890) and Idiom Neutral (1905), but it was Esperanto that succeeded above all others.

A Polish ophthalmologist with humanistic ideals, Dr Ludwig Lazarus Zamenhof (1859–1917) created Esperanto ('one who hopes') in 1887. His *interna ideo* (inner idea) was that only a common language that does not belong to any nation or ethnic group could unite the world to overcome racism and war. Zamenhof translated *Hamlet* and the Old Testament. Speakers of Esperanto today are estimated between 10,000 and two million, including 1,000–2,000 native speakers who were exposed to the language from birth. Most Esperanto speakers live in Europe. The first census of the Russian Federation in 2010 reported about 1,000 speakers of Esperanto. The language has a regular spelling and its *Fundamenta*

Gramatiko (Fundamental Grammar) has sixteen basic rules with no exceptions. The grammar of Esperanto somewhat resembles Chinese and Turkish and the vocabulary is European Romance languages. In a letter to Nikolai Borovko (*c.*1895), Zamenhof described his philosophical point of departure:

> The place I was born and spent my childhood gave direction to all my future struggles. In Białystok the inhabitants were divided into four distinct elements: Russians, Poles, Germans and Jews; each of these spoke their own language and looked on all the others as enemies. In such a town a sensitive nature feels more acutely than elsewhere the misery caused by language division and sees at every step that the diversity of languages is the first, or at least the most influential, basis for the separation of the human family into groups of enemies. I was brought up as an idealist; I was taught that all people were brothers, while outside in the street at every step I felt that there were no people, only Russians, Poles, Germans, Jews and so on. This was always a great torment to my infant mind, although many people may smile at such an 'anguish for the world' in a child. Since at that time I thought that 'grown-ups' were omnipotent, so I often said to myself that when I grew up I would certainly destroy this evil.

Stalin's Soviet Union regarded Esperanto as an international spy organization. Hitler, in *Mein Kampf*, identified Esperanto as a Bolshevist plot, an international Jewish conspiracy for world domination. Zamenhof's family and Esperantists were executed in the Holocaust. Fascist Italy found Esperanto congenial because its phonology (the sound system) was close to Italian. It has been the language of resistance and freedom adopted by various ideologies under rallying cries such as *Alia mondo estas ebla!* (Another world is possible!).

Young conscientious objectors in Britain during wartime studied Esperanto. Anarchists have favoured Esperanto ('Workers' Latin'), and socialists and anarchists studied it in China and Imperial Japan. Esperantists were subject to imprisonment and repression.

In the aftermath of the Great War, a report by Japanese economist and educator Nitobe Inazō was submitted to the League of Nations recommending that Esperanto be the body's working language. Ten delegates accepted but the French delegate vetoed the proposal fearing for the status of French.

Adherents of Esperanto included Rabindranath Tagore, Helen Keller, Lu Xun, and Leo Tolstoy, who spoke Esperanto and helped found an Esperantist Association in 1908. Eight Nobel laureates have been Esperantists. J. R. R. Tolkien stated: 'My advice to all who have the time or inclination to concern themselves with the international language movement would be: "Back Esperanto loyally"'. Chinese Esperantists describe Esperanto, now the most widely used constructed language in the world, as a 'linguistic handshake'. To shake hands, both persons must reach out half-way. Both have made the effort to learn this language. The study of Esperanto was started in the theological seminaries at Qom, Iran, following religious leader Ayatollah Khomeini's urging that the language could replace English as an international language and be a vehicle of mutual understanding among religions. As 'Google Translate' added Esperanto as its 64th language, the video game *Final Fantasy XI* was launched with the opening song *Memoro de la Ŝtono* in Esperanto, and the Chinese government rolled out a regular daily news bulletin on China International Radio in Esperanto.

Idealism prompted the invention of Esperanto in a utopian age of inventions and discoveries in science and technology. Zamenhof's espousal of Esperanto intersected with Eliezer Ben-Yehuda's creation of Modern Hebrew and the Jewish enlightenment in Europe. The year of the first Esperanto book saw other engineering inventions: Thomas Edison's Kinetoscope, Emile Berliner's gramophone, the construction of the Eiffel Tower, and the first transcontinental train in Canada.

The status of Esperanto is complicated. The founder's goal was to create a neutral and flexible medium to enable the world's peoples



7. Poster of the World Esperanto Congress, 1913, Berne, Switzerland.

to communicate (see Figure 7). The idea seemed paradoxical to Esperanto's detractors who questioned whether 'an artificial language' could ever be a living language. However, since the heyday of 20th-century nationalism the links between nation and

language have weakened, giving way to more transcultural and transnational flows. Globalized English, for example, is now less viewed as the 'ethnic' language or private property of England or America than as a linguistic resource for all. Esperanto is not the official language of any nation state nor has it entered the world's education systems.

Esperanto lacks the prestige of many national languages. It has no geographical location. It is elective and promoted by membership-based organizations. However, it is because of its deracinated nature that Esperanto is freely available and adaptable to every culture, with the promise of a rooted cosmopolitanism.

Chapter 9
Endangered languages

The way language lives now

In many countries there are speakers of lesser-known languages who live on the rim of two worlds: a small circle of heritage language speakers, and a large, modernizing, monolingual society. By the end of the 21st century, half the languages spoken in the world today may have disappeared. Fewer than 10,000 people speak 52 per cent of languages, and 83 per cent are spoken in single countries only, thereby exposing them to the policies of a single government. One-third of the world's alphabets are endangered. Many language communities have approached the point of no return: 133 languages are spoken by fewer than ten people, 28 per cent are spoken by fewer than 1,000. Ten major languages, each spoken by over 109 million people, are the mother tongues of almost half the world's population.

In the Victorian novel *The Way We Live Now* (1875), Anthony Trollope describes a banquet in London in honour of the emperor of China. The monarch sits in sumptuous isolation as two interpreters translate from Manchu to Chinese to English. However, the scenario of a non-Chinese speaking Emperor was unlikely. Mandarin Chinese had already overcome Manchu. Though Manchu was the primary language of the Qing dynasty, speakers at the Imperial court became Sinicized and the language

was moribund by the end of the 19th century. Less than one hundred people out of a population of ten million Manchus now speak Manchu.

Politics influences language's fortunes through time and place. In 1764, a mounted army of the Qing (the Manchu) Dynasty was dispatched to the fringes of the empire—now Central Asia. They expected to fight, subdue, and go home. Their survivors, 30,000 members of the Xibe branch of the Manchus, still inhabit the Kazakh border region and are inheritors of the language 'Xibe'—a dialect of Manchu. Though once a language of one of the world's most powerful empires, Manchu itself is now endangered. There are efforts at revitalization in the enclave of Qapqal Xibe Autonomous County, where it is offered in some primary schools.

The Holocaust

The most drastic impact on the vitality of a language is genocide. World War II completed the political assault on European language communities that had begun, systematically, in the 18th century. Yiddish was virtually destroyed. This language was the European base of Yiddish culture and European Jewry, and was the most politically unaligned lingua franca of Europe, with about ten million speakers on the eve of war. It is estimated that over two-thirds of the Jews who perished in the Holocaust were speakers of Yiddish. There was decreasing usage following the dispersal of the Jewish populations to places like the United States and the Soviet Union.

The Romani language was similarly affected (see Figure 8). The Romani people (popularly known as 'gypsy') were also subjected to genocide, the 'Porajmos', by the Nazis: the death-toll is variously estimated up to 1,500,000. The Romani people and their language have been subjected to forced relocation for centuries.



8. Migration/deportation of Romani people, Europe, 1905.

In 1549, an army composed of German and Italian mercenaries was sent to Devon and Cornwall, in the south-west of England, by King Edward VI (1537–1553) to suppress a revolt. The result was the Siege of Exeter and the massacre of 5,000 Cornish peasants. In what became known as the 'Prayer Book Rebellion' or the 'Western Rising', Cornish-speaking protesters rose up against the use of the English language in religious practice and the imposition of an English-only *Book of Common Prayer* (1549). The *Declaration of the Cornish Rebels*, in Devon, stated: 'and we the cornyshe men (whereof certen of vs vnderstande no Englysh) vtterly refuse thys new English'.

The Act of Uniformity extending the Reformation in England and Wales had outlawed Latin in liturgical rites and now the purpose was to increase political control of the regions through the spread of English culture and language. Already the dissolution of regional monasteries under Henry VIII had disrupted the tradition of local scholarship that had accommodated Cornish

and Devonian identities. From the Reformation onward, English spread and Kernowek (Cornish) retreated.

English first

Language shift happens for many reasons, including xenophobia and nationalism. When the United States declared war on Germany in 1917, it pursued war at home on German and other 'foreign tongues'. Under the *Babel Proclamation* (1918) America's second language, German, was proscribed. There was a drop in the study of foreign languages and continuing strife between citizens and new immigrants over English. Theodore Roosevelt, commending the proclamation, stated: 'America is a nation—not a polyglot boarding house.... There can be but one loyalty—to the Stars and Stripes; one nationality—the American—and therefore only one language—the English language.'

Roosevelt's words are echoed in today's 'English-only' movement in the USA. The commonwealth of Virginia declared English the official language in 1981, and attempts have been made in other states (Tennessee, 2009) to prevent city governments from using any language other than English. The movement is criticized for promoting misconceptions about the role of a language in society and the state, for being inconsistent with American freedom of speech and tolerance, and for failing to recognize the historic multilingualism that underpins the foundation of the United States.

There is no state of emergency regarding the status of English in the United States or elsewhere. On the contrary, global English is unstoppable and has been regarded by some as a 'killer language' contributing to the demise of the world's more vulnerable languages. It is neither threatened by other languages, nor in a process of break-up into unintelligible micro-Englishes. Whether the spread of English is an example of invidious linguistic imperialism, and whether this is inevitable in the age of globalization,

is debatable. The power of languages comes and goes in particular domains (like the waning of French in diplomacy and German in science). The increasing assertion of local identities and regional languages, and the learning of other major languages such as Chinese, will likely change the future linguistic landscape.

Harking back to the philosophical notion of heteroglossia, we repeat that each individual language is itself 'polyglottal', a microcosm of the multiple voices and variations. Each individual language is multi-layered, dense and made up of many different cultures and histories, and therefore contains not one world view but many. The huge differentiation in the varieties and styles of English astonished James Murray, the first editor of the *Oxford English Dictionary* (in 1884), who wrote:

> The English language is a centre without circumference proving itself a great, cultivated, civilized language by its illimitable 'vanishing border' of special terms, scientific, technical, slang, dialectal, some of which are English to some Englishmen, and undreamt of by others.

The coverage of regional varieties in the current *Oxford English Dictionary* derives from the fact that each variety now has its own corpus, like the *Australian National Dictionary*, the *Dictionary of New Zealand English*, the *Dictionary of South African English on Historical Principles*, and the *Dictionary of Caribbean English Usage*. American English is the most prolific contributor of new words.

Take a language and look inside. The activity of lexicography as well as translation and drama are examples of the essential inside-outsideness produced in the factory of language. Translation, in particular, is a good example of how one expressive form is recontextualized into another, different one: an act that is both representational and magical. The life of an individual language spins out therefore to embrace other lives and languages—in different forms, different translations. Big languages, like English,

are killer languages but they can also be generous and life-giving. Dramatist and poet William Shakespeare is England's national treasure, but his central characters are transnational, coming from the geographic periphery: Macbeth, Othello, Shylock, Hamlet Prince of Denmark, Cleopatra, and his dramatic analysis of old age in *The Tempest* is set on a colonial Caribbean island. Shakespeare was the only writer in Elizabethan England to write whole scenes of a play (*Henry V*) in a foreign language, French, as in this extract (Act 5.2.169–83):

> KATHERINE: I cannot tell vat is dat.
>
> KING HENRY V: No, Kate? I will tell thee in French…Je quand sur le possession de France, et quand vous avez le possession de moi,—let me see, what then?…It is as easy for me, Kate, to conquer the kingdom as to speak so much more French….
>
> KATHERINE: Sauf votre honneur, le François que vous parlez, il est meilleur que l'Anglois lequel je parle.
>
> KING HENRY V: No, faith, is't not, Kate: but thy speaking of my tongue, and I thine, most truly-falsely, must needs be granted to be much at one. But, Kate, dost thou understand thus much English, canst thou love me?

Shakespeare's primary source materials were English and Latin works: *Romeo and Juliet* was based on an Italian folktale that he read. In the 21st century, translations of Shakespeare are available in Swahili, Klingon, and Esperanto. In 1591, theatre audiences in Gdansk were watching a Polish performance of Philip Waimer's stage version of *Edward III*. From 2014 to 2016, there were seven theatrical productions of Shakespeare in Arabic and films from Bollywood (*Omkara*, *Maqbool*, *Haider—Othello*, *Macbeth*, *Hamlet*) and Japan (*Throne of Blood—Macbeth*, and *Ran—King Lear*).

Shakespearean drama has inspired generations of writers and translators who have 'reformed' his verse in other languages and

contexts, such as August Wilhelm von Schlegel and Paul Celan in Germany, Boris Pasternak in Russia, Tsubouchi Shōyō in Japan, Liang Shiqiu in Taiwan, Julius K. Nyere in Tanzania, Aimé Césaire in Martinique, Rabindranath Tagore in India, Voltaire in France, Elyas Abu Shabakeh in Syria, Wole Soyinka in Nigeria, and Charles and Mary Lamb in England.

Language decline

Once lost, a language is hard to restore. It is part of a linguistic tradition. The philosopher Wittgenstein remarked in his *Philosophical Investigations* (1953) that trying to repair a broken tradition is like a man trying to mend a broken spider's web with his bare hands. Half the world's languages have fewer than 10,000 speakers. Language shift occurs when a community shifts to speaking another language. It seems to be the natural order when there are sound economic and social reasons for choosing one language over another. There are some ways of estimating language endangerment (see Box 9).

Plurality and law of the earth

In a multilingual world, languages are time dependent. They come and go. The Chinese writing system formed the backbone of literary, military, and medical communication in the East Asian sphere—Japan, Vietnam, and Korea—for several centuries until the modern period. In the time line of multilingualism, historic indigenous languages of first nations still coexist with latecomer languages: compare Ojibwe and Cree with the arrival of French and English in Canada.

In some cases, there is a reprise of a distinguished oldcomer. Sanskrit is categorized by some as a 'dead language'—a literary and religious lingua franca of the southern part of South Asia. It is still used, however, in India: as a ceremonial language of temple prayers. A recent Indian premier took an oath in Sanskrit and

Box 9 Estimating language endangerment

Degree of endangerment	Language transmission across generations
Safe, widespread	Language used widely in government, education, and media.
Stable, restricted	Language is active in some domains—home, 'ethnic' schools. Used in lower levels of government, the workplace, some media.
Unstable, diminished	Language only within the community, decreasing literacy, parents not regularly speaking language to children.
Endangered	Language spoken by the older generation, parents understand it. Do not speak it among themselves or in the home.
Seriously endangered	Vestigial users of the language who speak the language partially. Language must be reassembled from memory and their infrequent speech.
Extinct	There are no speakers left.

there are ongoing attempts at revival with pop songs, websites, and weeklies.

Sanskrit is 4,000 years old. By contrast, Sheng is an entirely new language. It arose in post-war urban Kenya, a sociolect combining the lexis of English and the grammar of Swahili. It is the new cool. Sheng side-steps and challenges the social dominance of English and Swahili, allowing new Kenyans to play with and challenge linguistic identities that have been handed

down. Sheng was originally the marginalized speech of the shanty towns, of children and youth (the 'digital gen'), rappers and drivers of *matatus* (taxis). It moved upwards in the social structure and the educated classes can now speak it: a sign of cosmopolitan society. In addition to sixty-two tribal languages, English and Swahili remain the two official languages of Kenya: English the language of prestige, education, commerce, government, and 'good jobs'.

Revitalization and reversing language shift

Einar Haugen, in the 1940s, observed that we only start to worry about endangered languages when they are already dead. However, language revitalization has seen new theories of revitalization. Community vitality is how linguistic minorities survive. Ethnolinguistic vitality is difficult to calculate, being the 'subjective' dimension of how group members perceive their sociocultural position compared to the 'objective' accounts of language planners. One view is that only compartmentalization of threatened languages can assure their intergenerational mother tongue transmission in home, family, neighbourhood, and community. If this stage is not satisfied, everything else is biding time before extinction. However, in the case of Irish, geographic bias encountered in the early 20th century (West of Ireland and Galway) has been addressed by spreading the access to Irish nationwide via an elaborate school system.

Language revitalization requires many different approaches and the support of various people and organizations. What societal factors contribute to language shift and what are the conditions for resistance and reversal? The questions relate to languages that have suffered a decline in the speaker population (e.g. one hundred of the 250 distinct Aboriginal languages of Australia) as well as to smaller languages that have status and the support of families, governments, and schools, like Welsh in Wales.

The reviving language might be perceived as a 'heritage' language, thus linking aspects of social and local identity with the provision of speech and literacy development. Such perceptions sparked the recent revival of Kaurna—the indigenous language of Adelaide that has no native speakers and which was dormant for more than a century—in schools and literary culture.

Reconceptualizing the terminology of language decline and 'death' is also important. Miami-Illinois is an Algonquian language that declined in the 19th century, recorded in a French–Algonquian dictionary by Jacques Gravier (1651–1708), a Jesuit missionary. In the 1990s, the Miami Tribe of Oklahoma started a language reclamation programme referring to the language not as 'extinct' but 'sleeping'.

Even languages that are commonly thought to be 'dead', like Latin, retain life (vitality) by other means. The fortunes of Latin are a lesson in decline and survival. By AD 1000, a Roman dialect of farmers, soldiers, and urbanites became the language of European culture and thought, from Iceland to Sicily and North Africa, and inspired Europe's New World (*E pluribus unum*). Institutions like Oxford, Trinity College Dublin, and Moscow University still present honorary degrees with Latin orations, and Latin is widely studied in schools and colleges throughout the world. Harry Potter and Peter Rabbit are published in Latin and there are Latin-dialogue films (*Sebastiane*, 1976). There is *Latinus Interretialis* (Latin Internet), *Pagina publica breviloquentis* (Latin Twitter), Latin news radio, and Latin online communities. The Vatican uses Latin for official documents and an ATM in Vatican City may ask *Inserito scidulam quaeso* (please insert your card) for *deductio ex pecunia* (cash withdrawal).

Literacy and revitalization

A writing system can support and revitalize an endangered language. The lack of a writing system (or not writing) has been identified as a key factor in the decline of the critically endangered

languages. To develop a formal means of writing a language ('graphization') is a crucial step in a community's transition from orality to the stability of writing, the documentation of oral culture and tradition. The translation of A. de Saint-Exupéry's *Le Petit Prince* into Molise Croatian (2009) was the first publication of popular literature in this ancient language of three villages (1,000–2,000 speakers) in the Molise province of Italy.

Orthography is power. Orthography's tractions of power were spread across the world with religion. The associations are unmistakable:

Hebrew *Alefbet Ivri* and Judaism
Eastern Christianity and Cyrillic
Western Christianity and Latin
Arabic script and Islam
South Eastern Asian scripts and Buddhism, Brahmanism, and Hinduism
Chinese *hànzì* and Confucianism

Inuktitut, the language of the Inuit, is spread across a vast area from Alaska to the Atlantic. In the northern Canadian provinces, Inuktitut has various writing systems for less than 40,000 Inuit. Moravian missionaries in the 18th century introduced the Latin alphabet to the Labrador and Greenland Inuit. On Baffin Island, Anglicans were teaching 'syllabics' a phonetic, symbol-based form of writing originally developed for Cree. Therefore, the word 'moon' can be written in syllabic or Roman orthography as tatqiq, takkik, tarqiq. Easier said than written. A writing system can symbolize a unique communal identity even when politics interferes (think Hangul on the Korean peninsula).

The Hawaiian language was banned from schools across the islands for a century, but in 1983 educators began a language revival programme. From a core of fifty children some thousands of children are now proficient, due to Hawaiian-medium schools.

Endangered languages traditionally exist as ethnolinguistic symbols, 'heritage' languages, and tourist and business 'products'. There is also a 'new wave' of Internet networking, folk-rock-jazz music, art, dance and electronica, film and radio, language classes, and the emergence of teachers and textbooks.

Cornish and Manx lost their native speaker populations in the 20th century but indigenous is the new cool. The Celtic cultural boom is long-lasting. Even as Irish language usage numerically declines in the Gaeltacht, Irish has strengthened in urban communities. Like other Celtic languages, Manx on the Isle of Man went into precipitous decline but the Manx Gaelic Advisory Council was established, together with community networks, with an interest in language restoration. Manx language pre-schools were begun and the Isle of Man's Department of Education established Bunscoill Ghaelgagh primary school. Every year there is a new generation of bilingual Manx–English speakers. Similarly, the Kōhanga reo (language nest) concept in New Zealand promotes the transmission of Māori language, knowledge, and culture in Māori language primary schools.

Into the future

At the very core of a person is one basic language—human language. It is not thinking, but rather speaking that differentiates humankind from other creatures. *Loquor ergo sum.* I speak therefore I am. To this end and to deal with the incredible complexity of *sum*—living—humanity has made a world that teems with thousands of languages and dialects and styles. We juggle different memberships and identities: nation, region, and town, ethnicity, gender, social class, occupation, and religion. 'Plurality', as the philosopher Hannah Arendt (1906–1975) wrote, 'is the law of the earth'.

Evidence of human plurality is found, most perfectly, in the estimated 6,500–7,000 different languages spoken around the

world. The languages of the world make us who we are, and what we are, and where we belong. Language is the air we breathe, in an atmosphere of complex belonging. Governments and administrations are aware of this, as shown in this classic statement by the Council of Europe's European Charter for Regional or Minority Languages (1992):

> The Charter is a convention designed to protect and promote regional and minority languages as a threatened aspect of Europe's cultural heritage and to enable speakers of a regional or minority language to use it in private and public life. Its overriding purpose is cultural. It covers regional and minority languages, non-territorial languages and less widely used official languages.

Factors connected to globalization in the 21st century—like the surge in worldwide migration—have intensified interest in the reality of language diversity in communities. This is because language plays an important role as a symbol of the cohesion of community and cultural transmission.

The modern world has seen nationalist discourses together with aggressive assimilation policies, and later a belief (in the 1950s) in the virtue of cultural homogenization ('the melting pot' theory in the USA, Australia, and Canada). Despite all this, the saliency of cultural and linguistic distinctiveness has remained: with a powerful impact on the world of language and identity. In the present day, multiculturalism and multilingualism together form not only a backdrop to an understanding of globalization, migration, and transnational identities, but also a platform to enable all persons to participate in society.

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